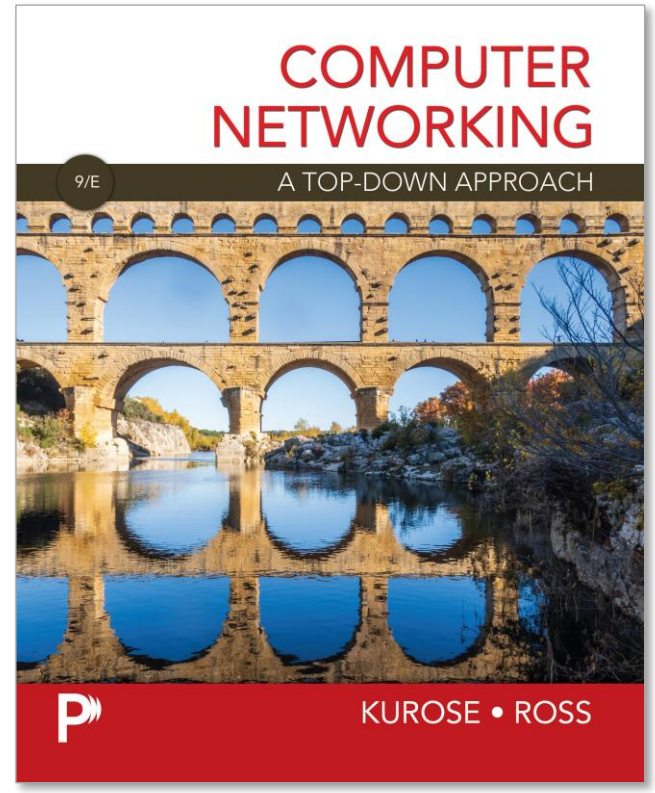
# Chapter 6
# The Link Layer and LANs

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**SPEAKER NOTES**

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# Link layer and LANs: our goals

- understand principles behind link layer services:
  - error detection, correction
  - sharing a broadcast channel: multiple access
  - link layer addressing
  - local area networks: Ethernet, VLANs
- datacenter networks

- instantiation, implementation of various link layer technologies

# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

- introduction
- error detection, correction
- multiple access protocols
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
- data center networking

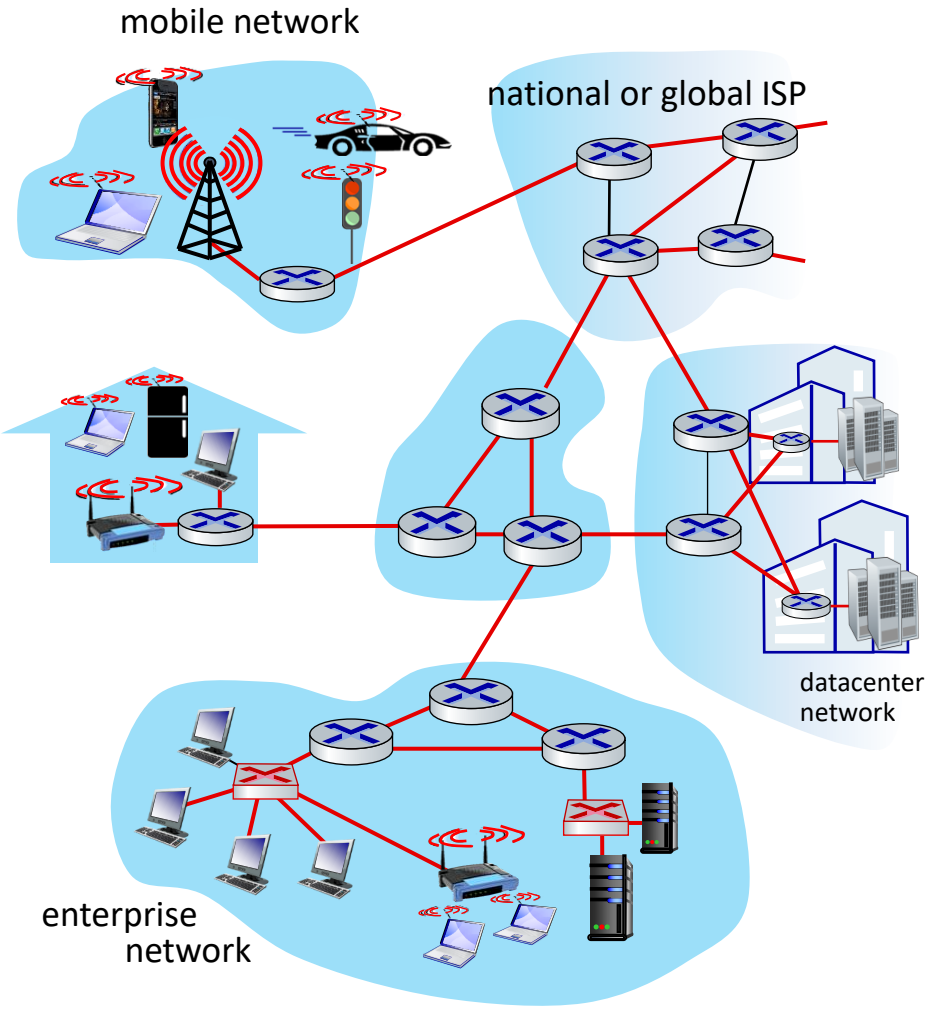
- a day in the life of a web request

# Link layer: introduction

terminology:

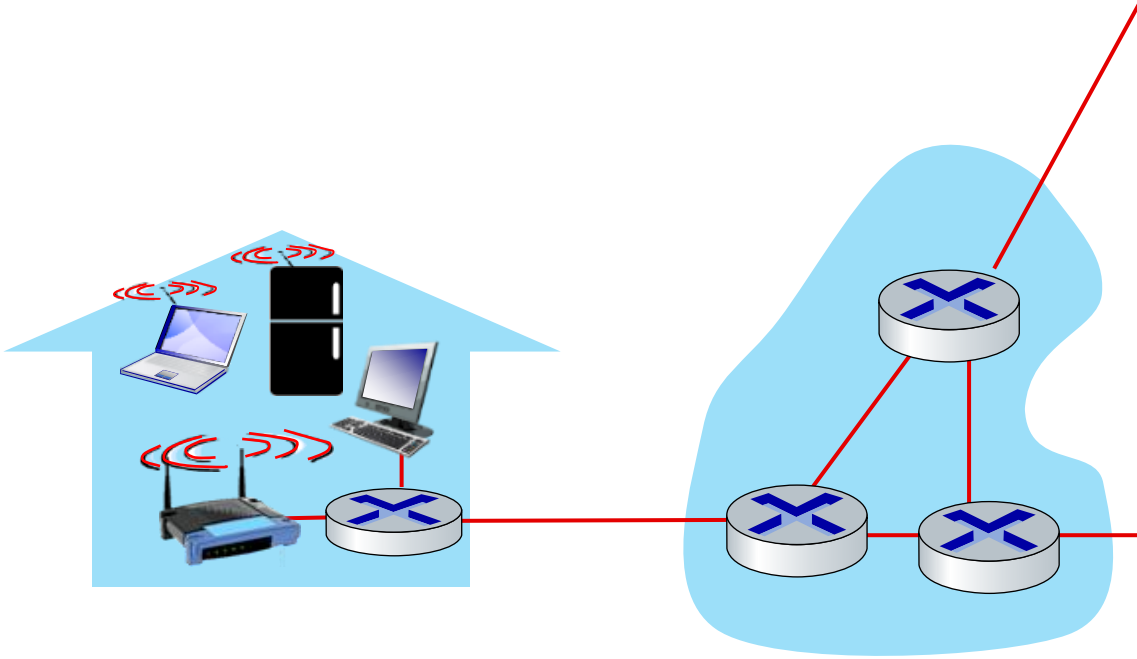
- hosts, routers: nodes
- communication channels that connect adjacent nodes along communication path: links
  - wired , wireless
  - LANs
- layer-2 packet: *frame*, encapsulates datagram

*link layer has responsibility of transferring datagram from one node to physically adjacent node over a link*

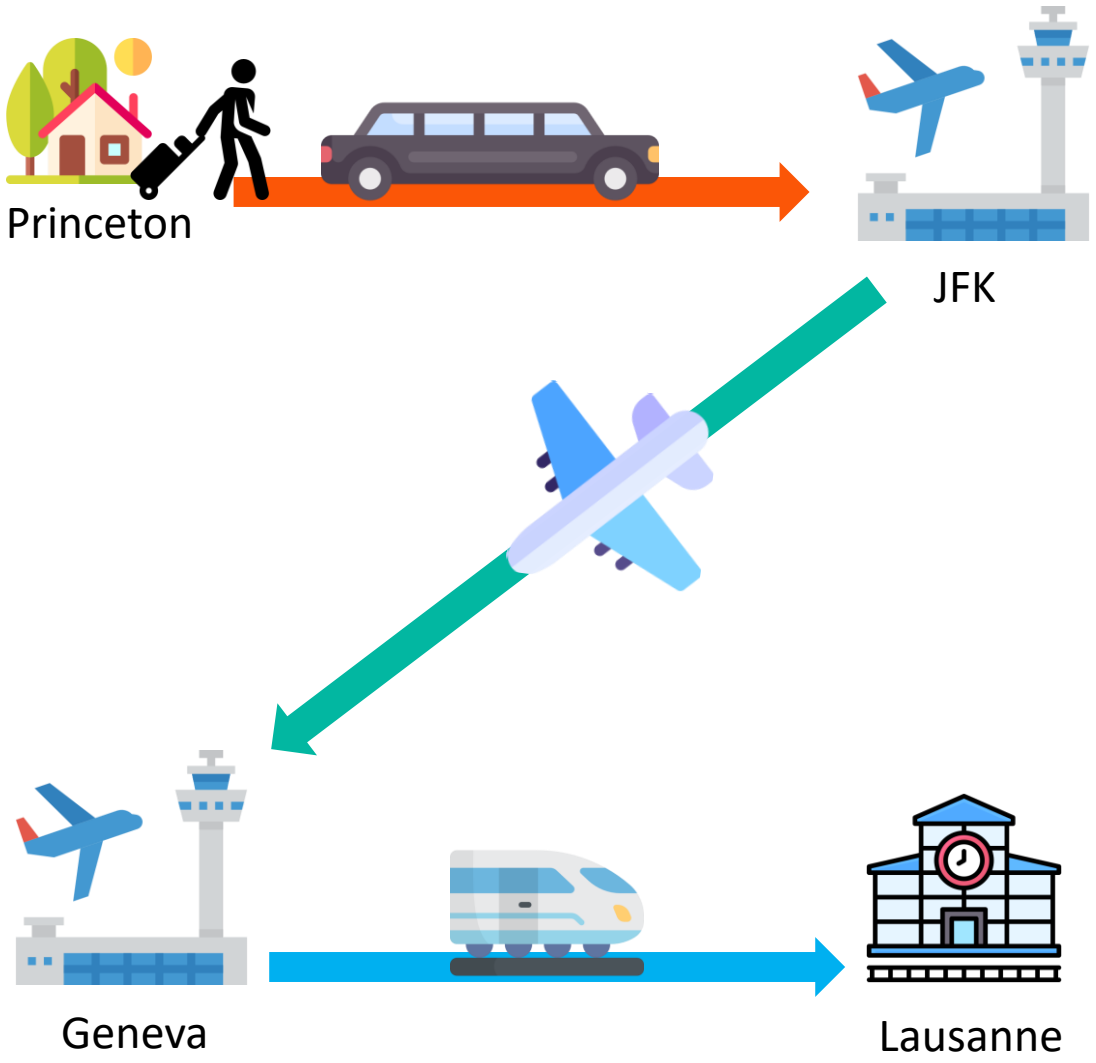


# Link layer: context

- datagram transferred by different link protocols over different links:
  - e.g., WiFi on first link, Ethernet on next link
- each link protocol provides different services
  - e.g., may or may not provide reliable data transfer over link



# Transportation analogy

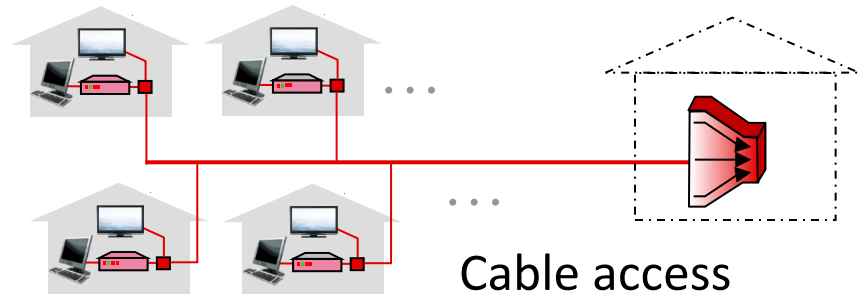


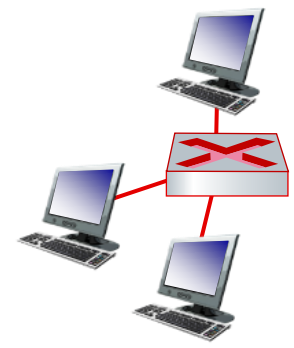

transportation analogy:

- trip from Princeton to Lausanne
  - limo: Princeton to JFK
  - plane: JFK to Geneva
  - train: Geneva to Lausanne
- tourist = datagram
- transport segment = communication link
- transportation mode = link-layer protocol
- travel agent = routing algorithm

# Link layer: services

- framing, link access:
  - encapsulate datagram into frame, adding header, trailer
  - channel access if shared medium
  - "MAC" addresses in frame headers identify source, destination (different from IP address!)
- reliable delivery between adjacent nodes
  - we already know how to do this!
  - seldom used on low bit-error links
  - wireless links: high error rates
    - ***Q:*** **why both link-level and end-end reliability?**





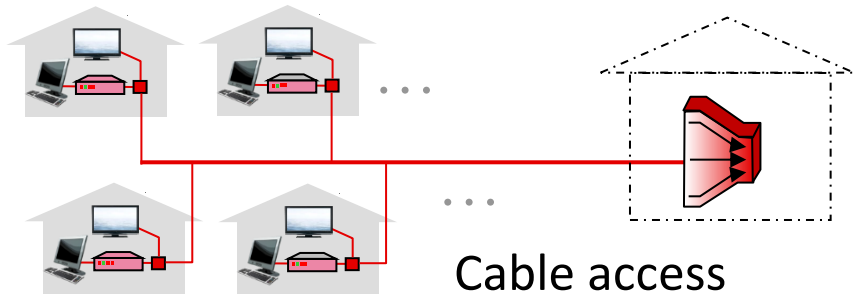
**SPEAKER NOTES**

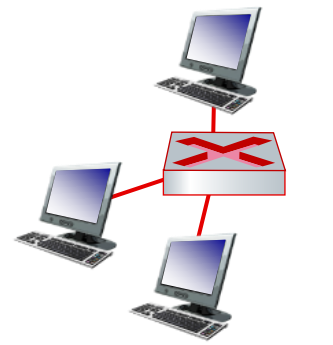
reliable delivery between adjacent nodes
Not always
Rdt likes we studied in transport layer
Reliable is not as important is correctness.  How is correctness assured?

Wireless is subjected to noise, interference and has high bit error rate.
Why

# Link layer: services (more)

- flow control:
  - pacing between adjacent sending and receiving nodes
- error detection:
  - errors caused by signal attenuation, noise.
  - receiver detects errors, signals retransmission, or drops frame
- error correction:
  - receiver identifies *and corrects* bit error(s) without retransmission
- half-duplex and full-duplex:
  - with half duplex, nodes at both ends of link can transmit, but not at same time



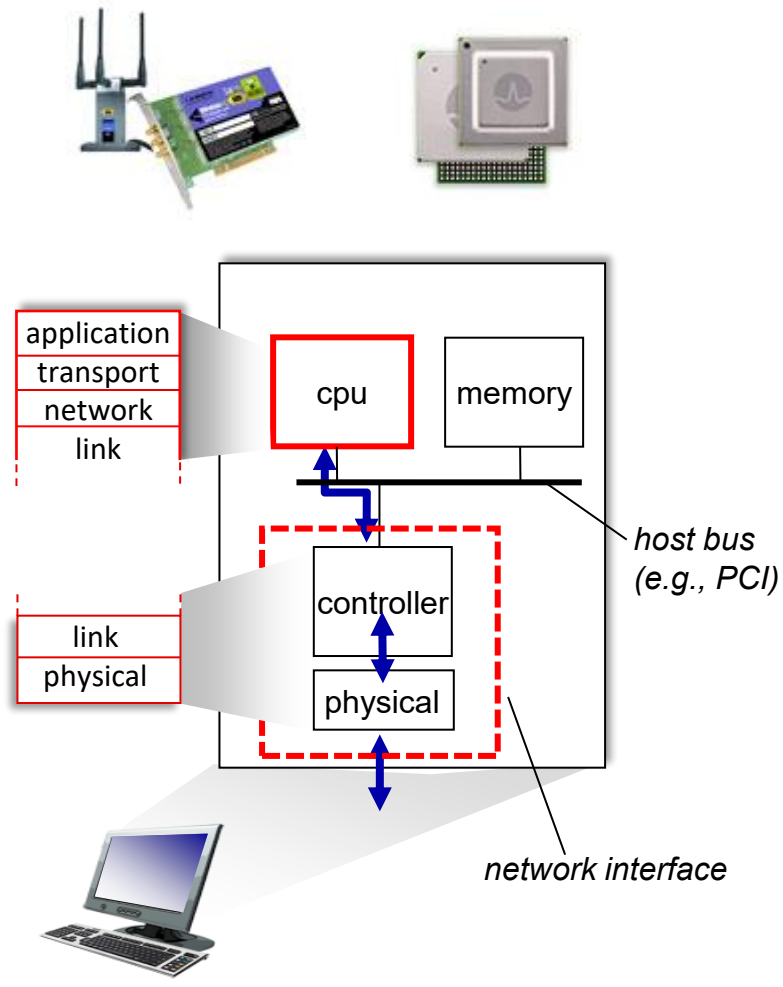


**SPEAKER NOTES**

Error detection in the link layer is usually more sophisticated and is implemented in hardware. Error correction is similar to error detection, except that a receiver not only detects when bit errors have occurred in the frame but also deter- mines exactly where in the frame the errors have occurred (and then corrects these errors).

# Host link-layer implementation

- in each-and-every host
- link layer implemented on-chip or in network interface card (NIC)
  - implements link, physical layer
- attaches into host's system buses
- combination of hardware, software, firmware



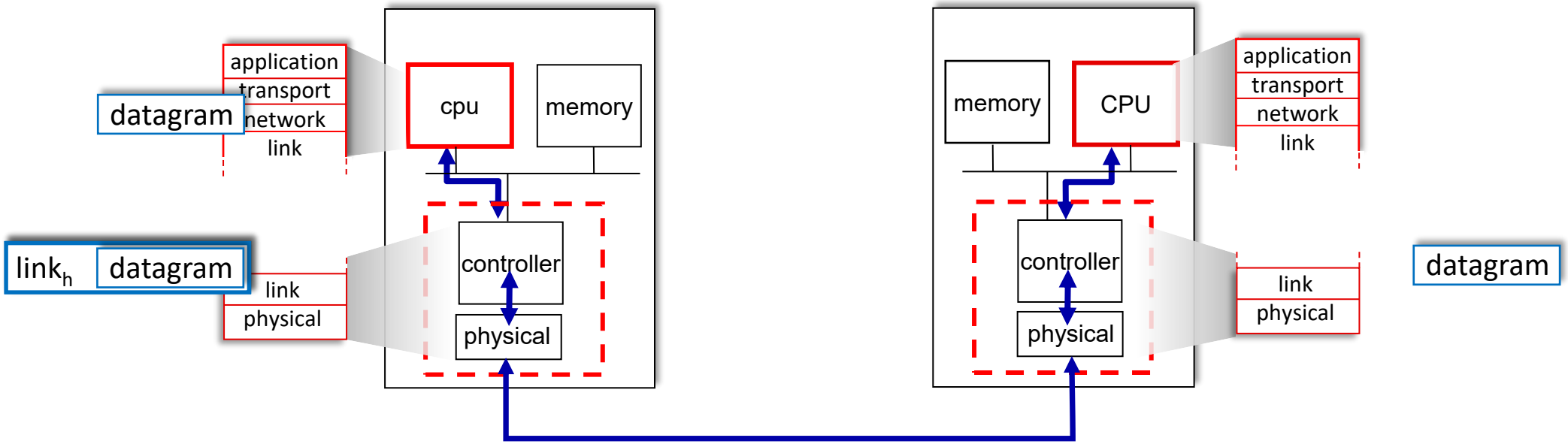



**SPEAKER NOTES**

The Ethernet capabilities are either integrated into the motherboard chipset or implemented via a low-cost dedicated Ethernet chip. For the most part, the link layer is implemented on a chip called the network adapter, also sometimes known as a network interface controller (NIC). The network adapter implements many link layer services including framing, link access, error detection, and so on. Thus, much of a link-layer controller's functionality is implemented in hardware. For example, Intel's 700 series adapters [Intel 2020] implements the Ethernet protocols we'll study in Section 6.5; the Atheros AR5006 [Atheros 2020] controller implements the 802.11 WiFi protocols we'll study in Chapter 7.

Figure 6.2 shows that while most of the link layer is implemented in hardware, part of the link layer is implemented in software that runs on the host's CPU. The software components of the link layer implement higher-level link-layer functionality such as assembling link-layer addressing information and activating the controller hardware. On the receiving side, link-layer software responds to con- troller interrupts (for example, due to the receipt of one or more frames), handling error conditions and passing a datagram up to the network layer. Thus, the link layer is a combination of hardware and software

# Interfaces communicating




sending side:

- encapsulates datagram in frame
- adds error checking bits, reliable data transfer, flow control, etc.

receiving side:

- looks for errors, reliable data transfer, flow control, etc.
- extracts datagram, passes to upper layer at receiving side

# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

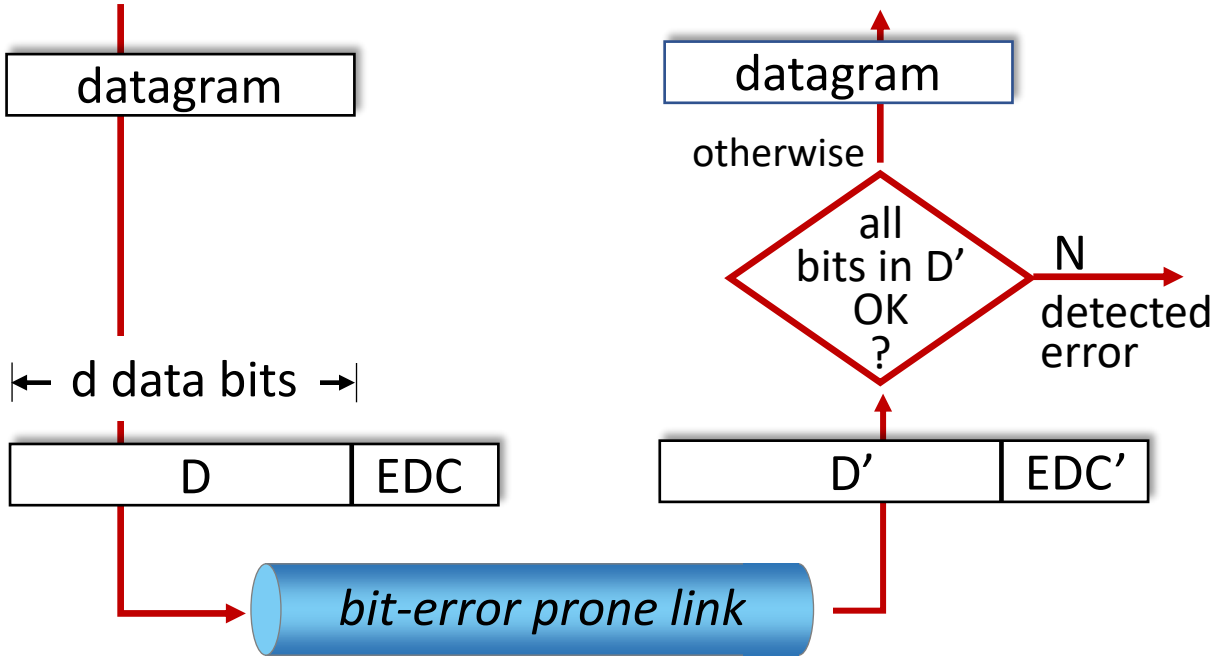
- introduction
- error detection, correction
- multiple access protocols
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
- data center networking

- a day in the life of a web request

# Error detection

EDC: error detection and correction bits (e.g., redundancy)

D: data protected by error checking, may include header fields



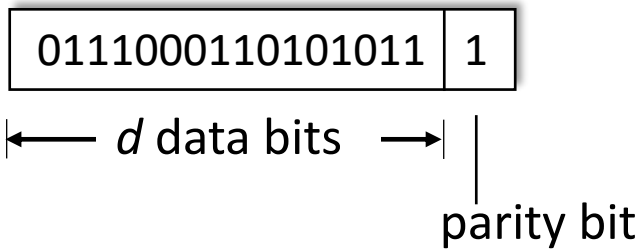

Error detection not 100% reliable!

- protocol may miss some errors, but rarely
- larger EDC field yields better detection and correction

# Parity checking

## single bit parity:

- detect single bit errors



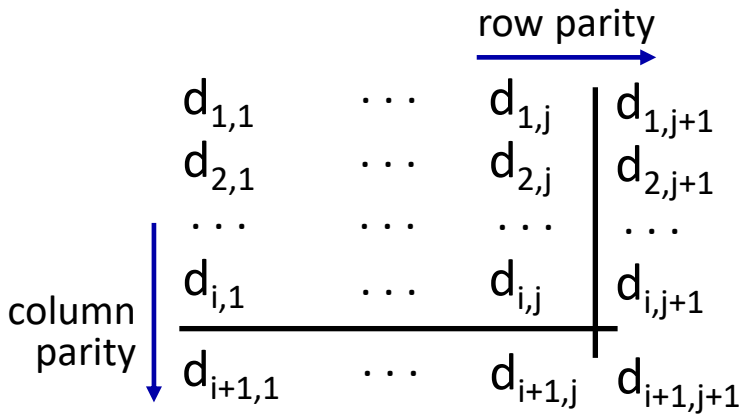

Even/odd parity: set parity bit so there is an even/odd number of 1's

## At receiver:

- compute parity of *d* received bits
- compare with received parity bit – if different than error detected

## Can detect *and* correct errors (without retransmission!)

- two-dimensional parity: detect *and correct* single bit errors




no errors: (even parity)

| | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 1 |
| 1 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 0 |
| 0 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 1 |
| 0 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 |

detected and correctable single-bit error:

| | | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 1 | |
| 1 | 0 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 0 | parity error |
| 0 | 1 | 1 | 1 | 0 | 1 | |
| 0 | 0 | 1 | 0 | 1 | 0 | |

parity error

* Check out the online interactive exercises for more examples: http://gaia.cs.umass.edu/kurose_ross/interactive/

# Internet checksum (review, see section 3.3)

*Goal:* detect errors (*i.e.,* flipped bits) in transmitted segment

## sender:

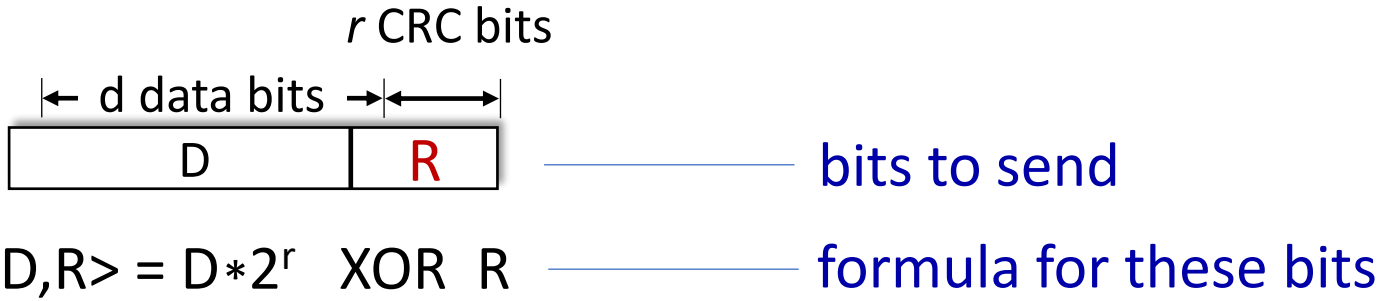
- treat contents of UDP segment (including UDP header fields and IP addresses) as sequence of 16-bit integers
- checksum: addition (one's complement sum) of segment content
- checksum value put into UDP checksum field

## receiver:

- compute checksum of received segment
- check if computed checksum equals checksum field value:
  - not equal - error detected
  - equal - no error detected. *But maybe errors nonetheless?* More later ….

# Cyclic Redundancy Check (CRC)

- more powerful error-detection coding
- D: data bits (given, think of these as a binary number)
- G: bit pattern (generator), of *r+1* bits (given, specified in CRC standard)




*sender:* compute *r* CRC bits, R, such that <D,R> *exactly* divisible by G (mod 2)

- receiver knows G, divides <D,R> by G. If non-zero remainder: error detected!
- can detect all burst errors less than r+1 bits
- widely used in practice (Ethernet, 802.11 WiFi)

# Cyclic Redundancy Check (CRC): example

Sender wants to compute R such that:

$D \cdot 2^r \ \ XOR \ \ R = nG$

... or equivalently (XOR R both sides):

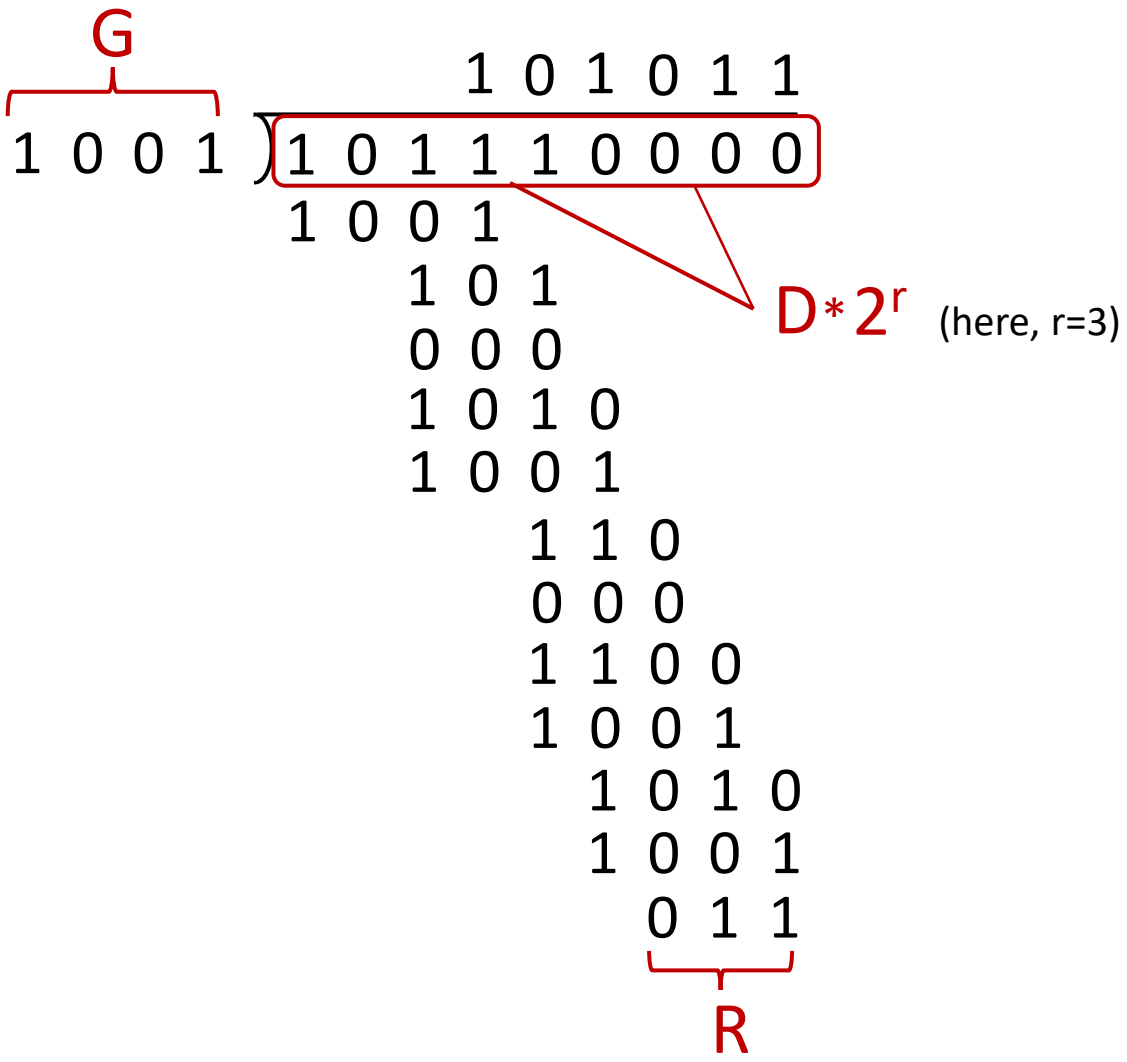
$D \cdot 2^r = nG \ \ XOR \ \ R$

... which says:

if we divide $D \cdot 2^r$ by G, we want remainder R to satisfy:

$$R = \text{remainder}\left[\frac{D \cdot 2^r}{G}\right]$$

*algorithm for computing R*

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# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

- introduction
- error detection, correction
- **multiple access protocols**
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
- data center networking

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# Multiple access links, protocols

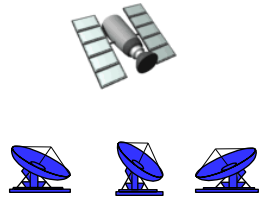
two types of “links”:

- point-to-point
  - point-to-point link between Ethernet switch, host
  - PPP for dial-up access
- broadcast (shared wire or medium)
  - old-school Ethernet
  - upstream HFC in cable-based access network
  - 802.11 wireless LAN, 4G/4G. satellite

shared wire (e.g., cabled Ethernet)

shared radio: 4G/5G

shared radio: WiFi



shared radio: satellite

humans at a cocktail party (shared air, acoustical)

# Multiple access protocols

- single shared broadcast channel
- two or more simultaneous transmissions by nodes: interference
  - *collision* if node receives two or more signals at the same time

**multiple access protocol**

- distributed algorithm that determines how nodes share channel, i.e., determine when node can transmit
- communication about channel sharing must use channel itself!
  - no out-of-band channel for coordination

# An ideal multiple access protocol

*given:* multiple access channel (MAC) of rate *R* bps

*desiderata:*

1. when one node wants to transmit, it can send at rate *R*.
2. when *M* nodes want to transmit, each can send at average rate *R/M*
3. fully decentralized:
   - no special node to coordinate transmissions
   - no synchronization of clocks, slots
4. simple

# MAC protocols: taxonomy

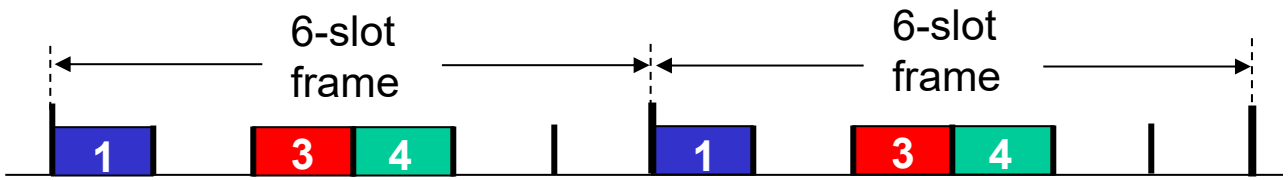
three broad classes:

- channel partitioning
  - divide channel into smaller “pieces” (time slots, frequency, code)
  - allocate piece to node for exclusive use
- random access
  - channel not divided, allow collisions
  - “recover” from collisions
- “taking turns”
  - nodes take turns, but nodes with more to send can take longer turns

# Channel partitioning MAC protocols: TDMA

## TDMA: time division multiple access

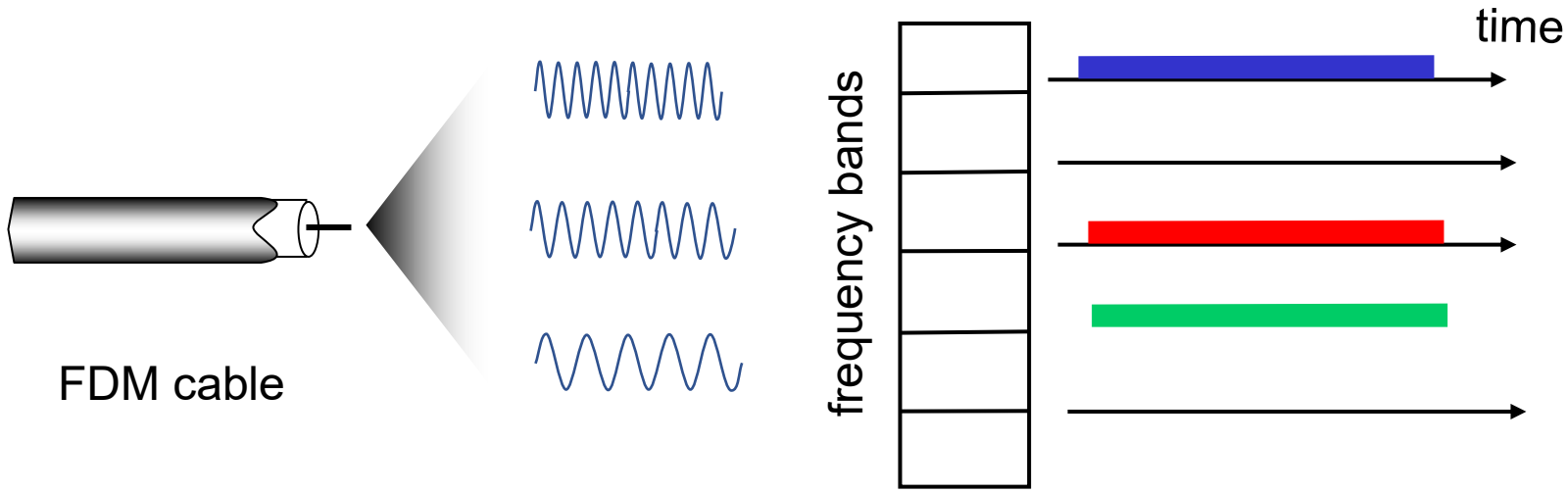
- access to channel in “rounds”
- each station gets fixed length slot (length = packet transmission time) in each round
- unused slots go idle
- example: 6-station LAN, 1,3,4 have packets to send, slots 2,5,6 idle



# Channel partitioning MAC protocols: FDMA

## FDMA: frequency division multiple access

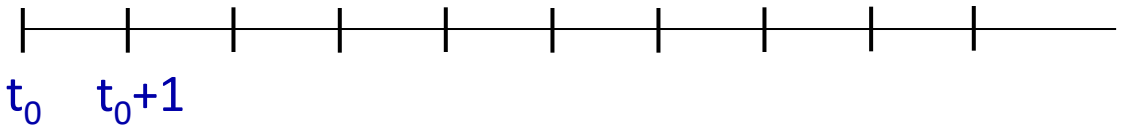
- channel spectrum divided into frequency bands
- each station assigned fixed frequency band
- unused transmission time in frequency bands go idle
- example: 6-station LAN, 1,3,4 have packet to send, frequency bands 2,5,6 idle



# Random access protocols

- when node has packet to send
  - transmit at full channel data rate R
  - no *a priori* coordination among nodes
- two or more transmitting nodes: "collision"
- random access protocol specifies:
  - how to detect collisions
  - how to recover from collisions (e.g., via delayed retransmissions)
- examples of random access MAC protocols:
  - ALOHA, slotted ALOHA
  - CSMA, CSMA/CD, CSMA/CA

# Slotted ALOHA




## assumptions:

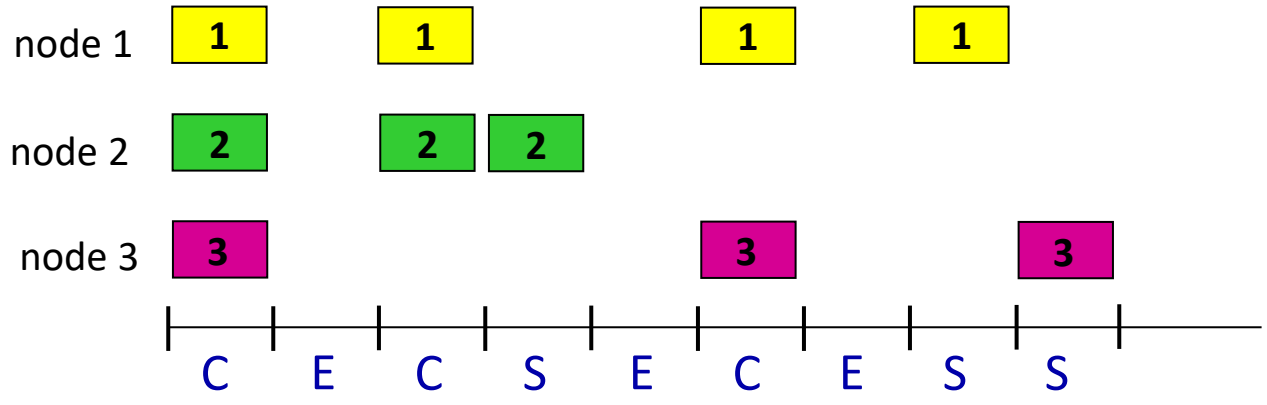
- all frames same size
- time divided into equal size slots (time to transmit 1 frame)
- nodes start to transmit only slot beginning
- nodes are synchronized
- if 2 or more nodes transmit in slot, all nodes detect collision

## operation:

- when node obtains fresh frame, transmits in next slot
  - *if no collision:* node can send new frame in next slot
  - *if collision:* node retransmits frame in each subsequent slot with probability *p* until success

randomization – *why*?

# Slotted ALOHA




C: collision
S: success
E: empty

## Pros:

- single active node can continuously transmit at full rate of channel
- highly decentralized: only slots in nodes need to be in sync
- simple

## Cons:

- collisions, wasting slots
- idle slots
- nodes may be able to detect collision in less than time to transmit packet
- clock synchronization



**SPEAKER NOTES**

Slotted ALOHA would appear to have many advantages. Unlike channel partitioning, slotted ALOHA allows a node to transmit continuously at the full rate, R, when that node is the only active node. (A node is said to be active if it has frames to send.) Slotted ALOHA is also highly decentralized, because each node detects collisions and independently decides when to retransmit. (Slotted ALOHA does, however, require the slots to be synchronized in the nodes; shortly we'll discuss an unslotted version of the ALOHA protocol, as well as CSMA protocols, none of which require such synchronization.) Slotted ALOHA is also an extremely simple protocol.

# Slotted ALOHA: efficiency

efficiency: long-run fraction of successful slots (many nodes, all with many frames to send)

- *suppose: N* nodes with many frames to send, each transmits in slot with probability *p*
  - prob that given node has success in a slot = $p(1-p)^{N-1}$
  - prob that *any* node has a success = $Np(1-p)^{N-1}$
  - max efficiency: find $p^*$ that maximizes $Np(1-p)^{N-1}$
  - for many nodes, take limit of $Np^*(1-p^*)^{N-1}$ as *N* goes to infinity, gives:

*max efficiency = 1/e = .37*

- *at best:* channel used for useful transmissions 37% of time!

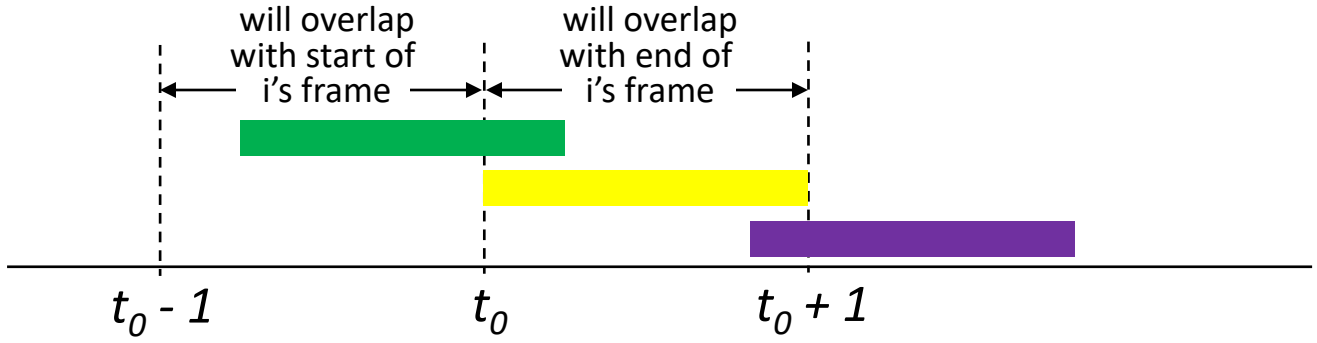
**SPEAKER NOTES**

Suppose there are N nodes. Then the probability that a given slot is a successful slot is the probability that one of the nodes transmits and that the remaining N - 1 nodes do not transmit. The probability that a given node transmits is p; the probability that the remaining nodes do not transmit is (1 - p)N-1. Therefore, the probability a given node has a success is p(1 - p)N-1. Because there are N nodes, the probability that any one of the N nodes has a success is Np(1 - p)N - 1.

only 37 percent of the slots do useful work. Thus, the effective transmission rate of the channel is not R bps but only 0.37 R bps! A similar analysis also shows that 37 percent of the slots go empty and 26 percent of slots have collisions.

# Pure ALOHA

- unslotted Aloha: simpler, no synchronization
  - when frame first arrives: transmit immediately
- collision probability increases with no synchronization:
  - frame sent at $t_0$ collides with other frames sent in $[t_0-1,t_0+1]$




- pure Aloha efficiency: 18% !

# CSMA (carrier sense multiple access)

simple CSMA: listen before transmit:

- if channel sensed idle: transmit entire frame
- if channel sensed busy: defer transmission

- human analogy: don't interrupt others!

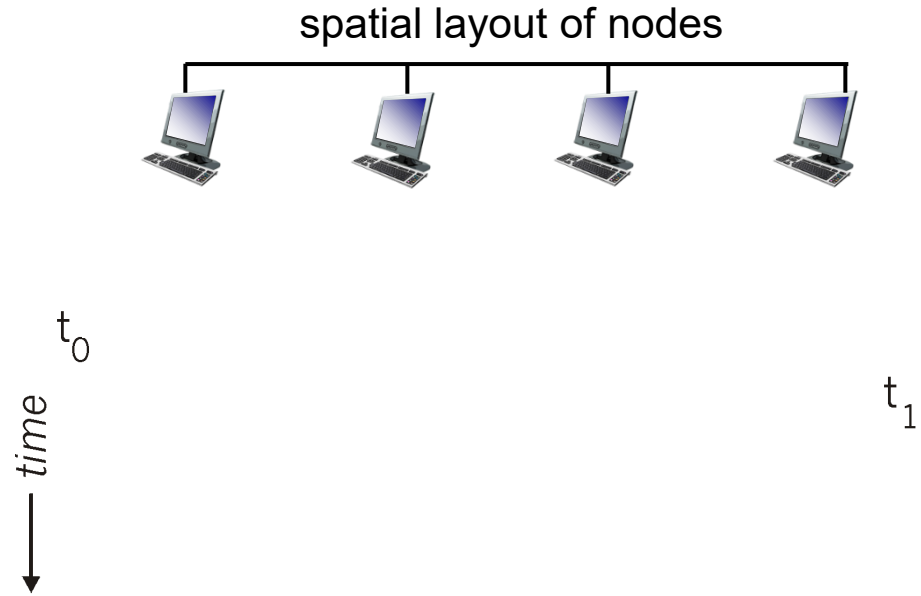
CSMA/CD: CSMA with *collision detection*

- collisions *detected* within short time
- colliding transmissions aborted, reducing channel wastage
- collision detection easy in wired, difficult with wireless

- human analogy: the polite conversationalist

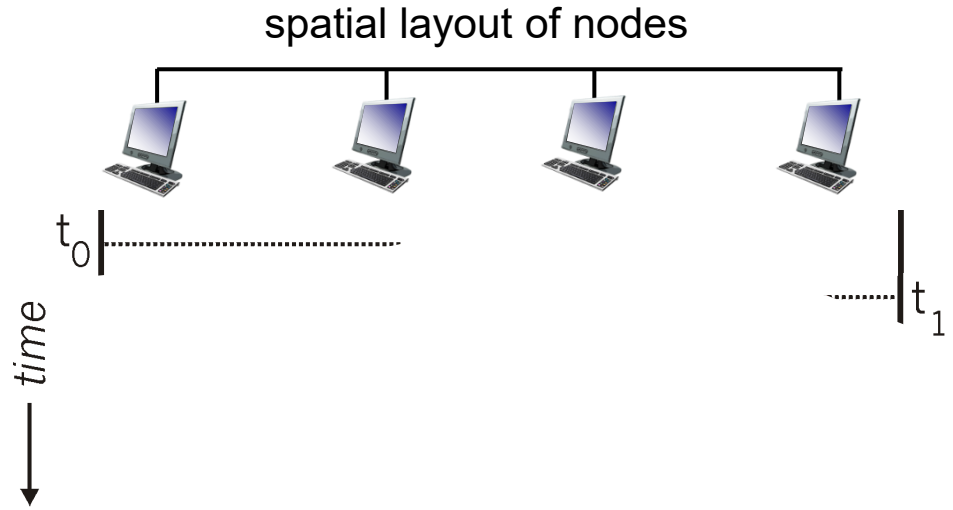
# CSMA: collisions

- collisions can *still* occur with carrier sensing:
  - propagation delay means two nodes may not hear each other's just-started transmission
- collision: entire packet transmission time wasted
  - distance & propagation delay play role in in determining collision probability



# CSMA/CD:

- CSMA/CD reduces the amount of time wasted in collisions
  - transmission aborted on collision detection



# Ethernet CSMA/CD algorithm

1. Ethernet receives datagram from network layer, creates frame
2. If Ethernet senses channel:
   if idle: start frame transmission.
   if busy: wait until channel idle, then transmit
3. If entire frame transmitted without collision - done!
4. If another transmission detected while sending: abort, send jam signal
5. After aborting, enter *binary (exponential) backoff:*
   - after *m*th collision, chooses *K* at random from $\{0,1,2, \ldots, 2^m-1\}$. Ethernet waits $K \cdot 512$ bit times, returns to Step 2
   - more collisions: longer backoff interval



**SPEAKER NOTES**

For Ethernet, the actual amount of time a node waits is K # 512 bit times (i.e., K times the amount of time needed to send 512 bits into the Ethernet) and the maxi- mum value that n can take is capped at 10.

# CSMA/CD efficiency

- $T_{prop}$ = max prop delay between 2 nodes in LAN
- $t_{trans}$ = time to transmit max-size frame

$$efficiency = \frac{1}{1 + 5t_{prop}/t_{trans}}$$

- efficiency goes to 1
  - as $t_{prop}$ goes to 0
  - as $t_{trans}$ goes to infinity
- better performance than ALOHA: and simple, cheap, decentralized!



**SPEAKER NOTES**

let dprop denote the maximum time it takes signal energy to propagate between any two adapters. Let dtrans be the time to transmit a maximum-size frame (approximately 1.2 msecs for a 10 Mbps Ethernet).

# “Taking turns” MAC protocols

## channel partitioning MAC protocols:

- share channel *efficiently* and *fairly* at high load
- inefficient at low load: delay in channel access, 1/N bandwidth allocated even if only 1 active node!

## random access MAC protocols

- efficient at low load: single node can fully utilize channel
- high load: collision overhead

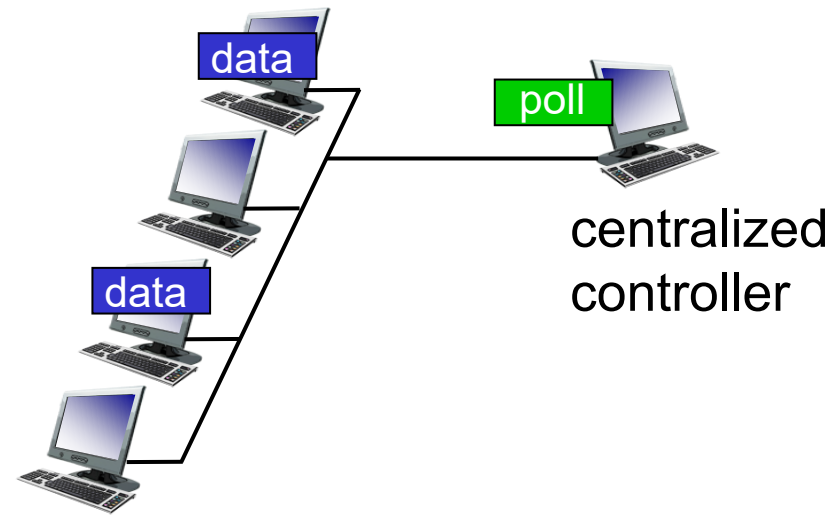
## “taking turns” protocols

- look for best of both worlds!

# “Taking turns” MAC protocols

polling:

- centralized controller “invites” other nodes to transmit in turn
- typically used with “dumb” devices
- concerns:
  - polling overhead
  - latency
  - single point of failure (master)
- Bluetooth uses polling





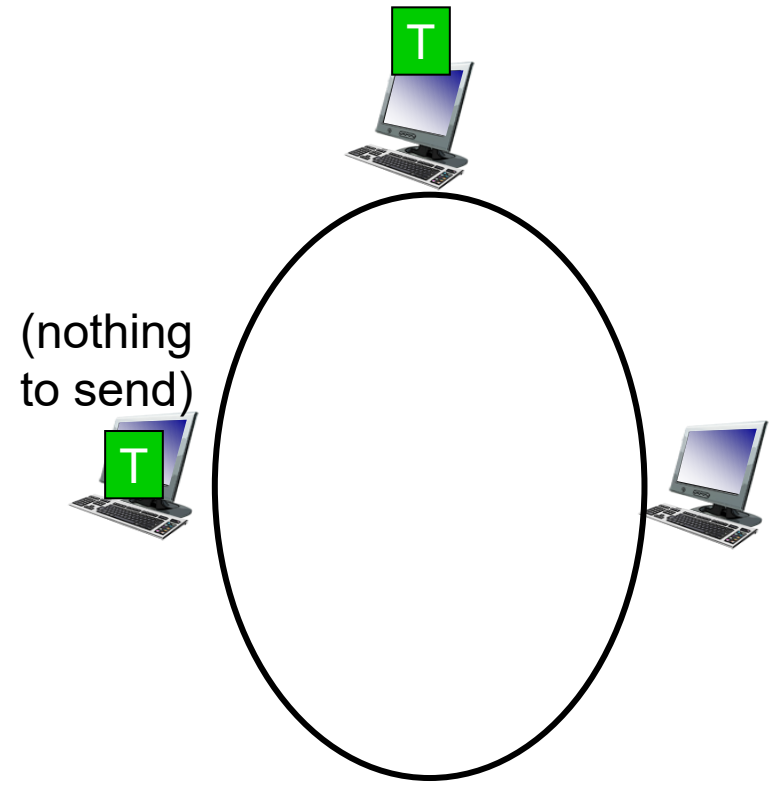

**SPEAKER NOTES**

The first drawback is that the protocol introduces a polling delay—the amount of time required to notify a node that it can transmit. If, for example, only one node is active, then the node will transmit at a rate less than R bps, as the master node must poll each of the inactive nodes in turn each time the active node has sent its maximum number of frames. The second drawback, which is potentially more serious, is that if the master node fails, the entire channel becomes inoperative. The Bluetooth protocol, which we will study in Section 6.3, is an example of a polling protocol.

# “Taking turns” MAC protocols

token passing:

- control *token* message explicitly passed from one node to next, sequentially
  - transmit while holding token
- concerns:
  - token overhead
  - latency
  - single point of failure (token)

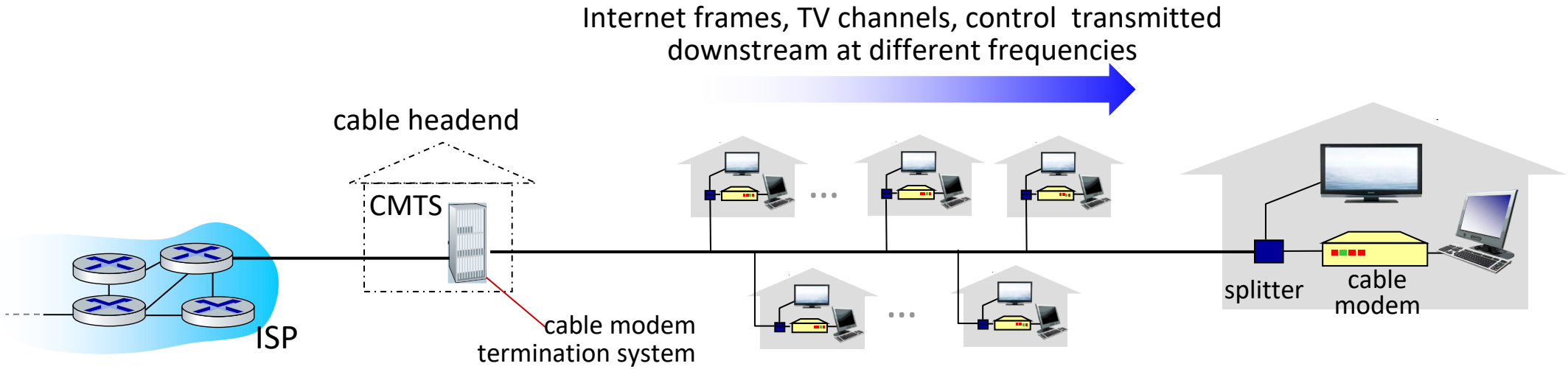


**SPEAKER NOTES**

no master node

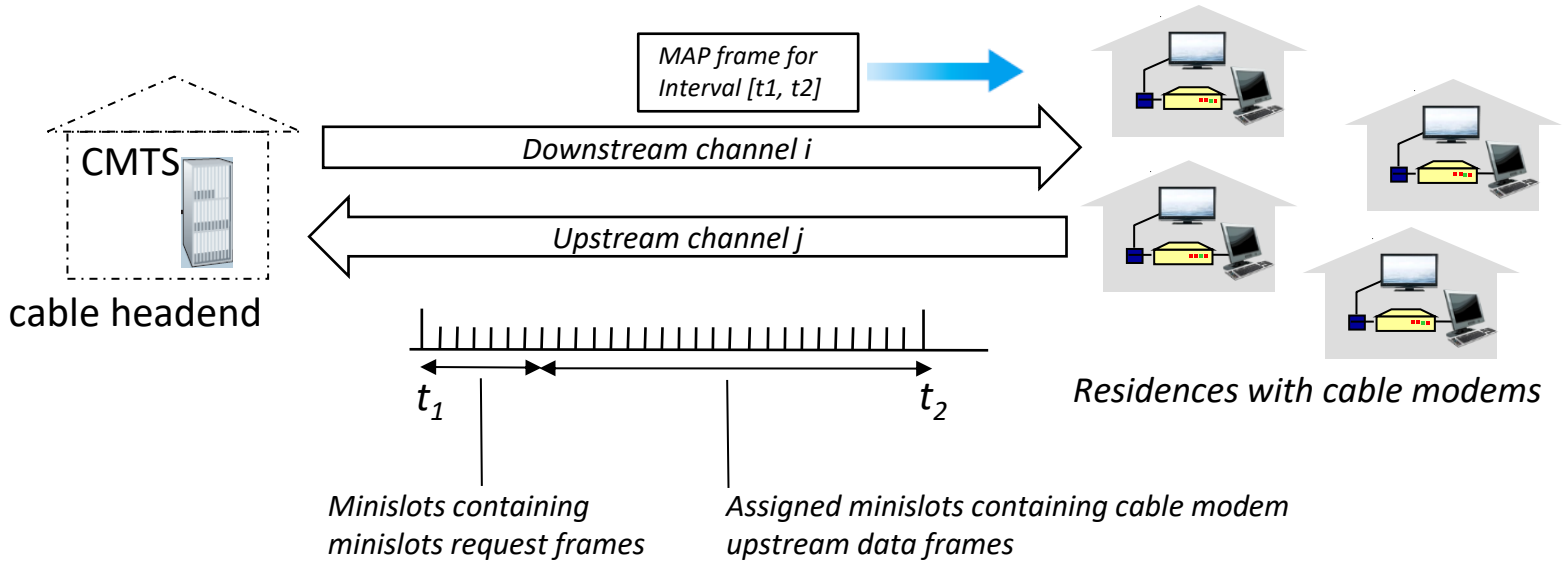
But it has its problems as well. For example, the failure of one node can crash the entire channel. Or if a node accidentally neglects to release the token, then some recovery procedure must be invoked to get the token back in circulation.

# Cable access network: FDM, TDM *and* random access!




- multiple downstream (broadcast) FDM channels: up to 1.6 Gbps/channel
  - single CMTS transmits into channels
- multiple upstream channels (up to 1 Gbps/channel)
  - multiple access: all users contend (random access) for certain upstream channel time slots; others assigned TDM

# Cable access network:




DOCSIS: data over cable service interface specification

- FDM over upstream, downstream frequency channels
- TDM upstream: some slots assigned, some have contention
  - downstream MAP frame: assigns upstream slots
  - request for upstream slots (and data) transmitted random access (binary backoff) in selected slots

# Summary of MAC protocols

- channel partitioning, by time, frequency or code
  - Time Division, Frequency Division
- random access (dynamic),
  - ALOHA, S-ALOHA, CSMA, CSMA/CD
  - carrier sensing: easy in some technologies (wire), hard in others (wireless)
  - CSMA/CD used in Ethernet
  - CSMA/CA used in 802.11
- taking turns
  - polling from central site, token passing
  - Bluetooth, FDDI,  token ring

# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

- introduction
- error detection, correction
- multiple access protocols
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
- data center networking

- a day in the life of a web request

# MAC addresses

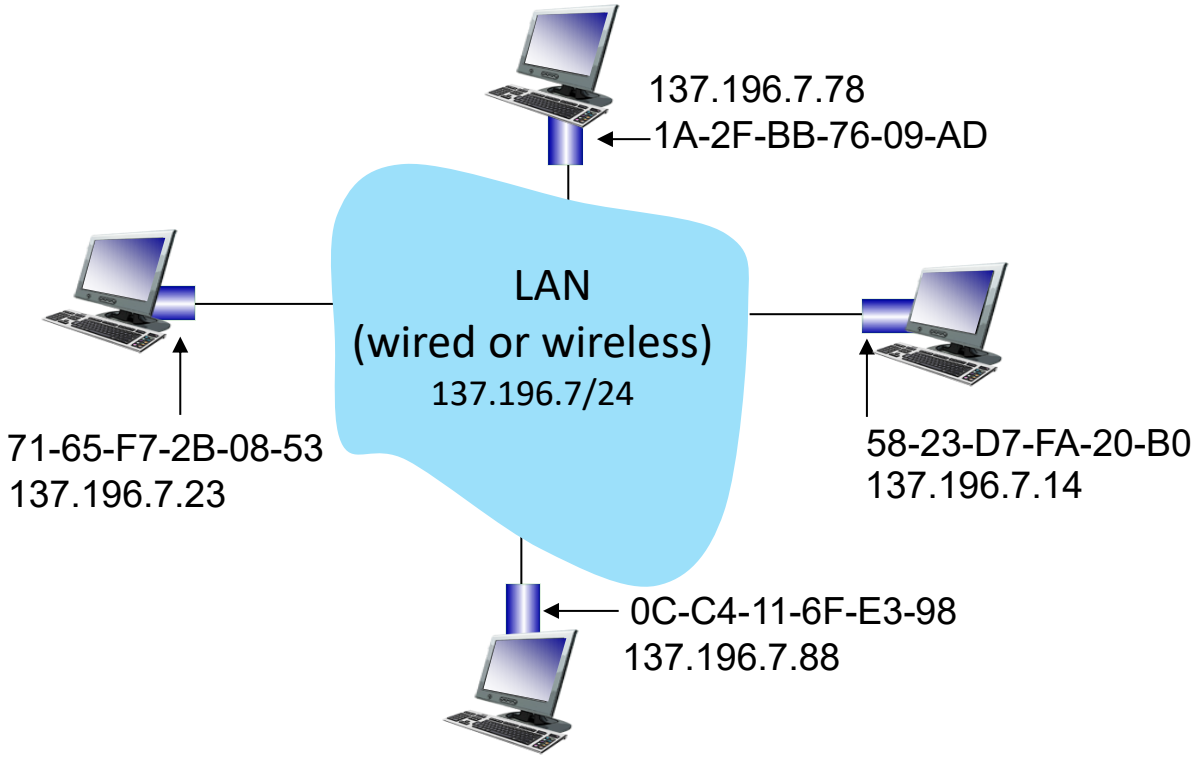
- 32-bit IP address:
  - *network-layer* address for interface
  - used for layer 3 (network layer) forwarding
  - e.g.: 128.119.40.136
- MAC (or LAN or physical or Ethernet) address:
  - function: used "locally" to get frame from one interface to another physically-connected interface (same subnet, in IP-addressing sense)
  - 48-bit MAC address (for most LANs) burned in NIC ROM, also sometimes software settable
  - e.g.: 1A-2F-BB-76-09-AD

*hexadecimal (base 16) notation*
*(each "numeral" represents 4 bits)*

# MAC addresses

each interface on LAN

- has unique 48-bit MAC address
- has a locally unique 32-bit IP address (as we've seen)

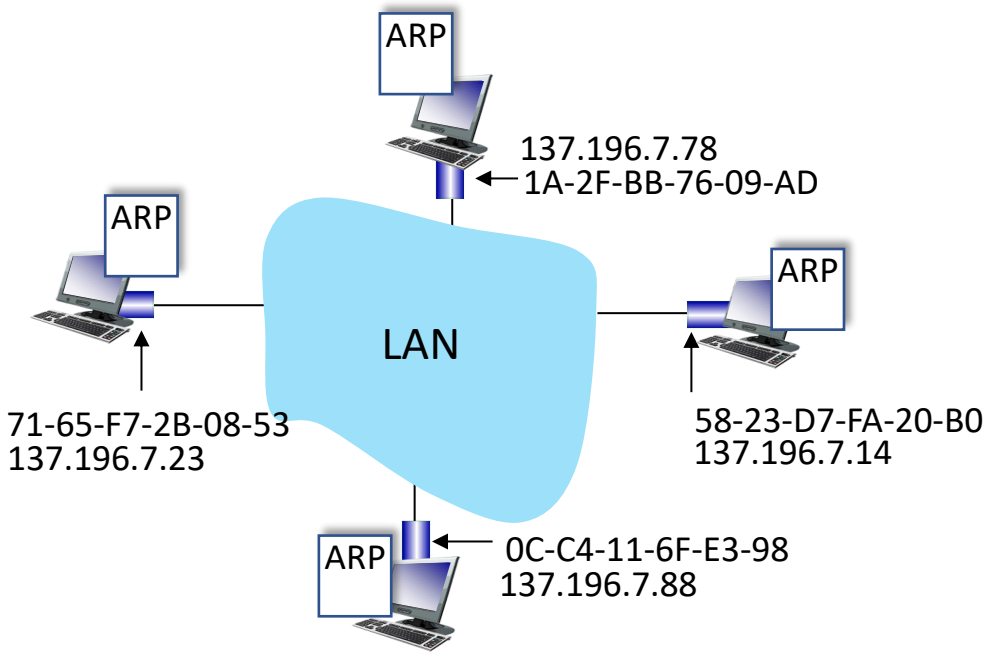


# MAC addresses

- MAC address allocation administered by IEEE
- manufacturer buys portion of MAC address space (to assure uniqueness)
- analogy:
  - MAC address: like Social Security Number
  - IP address: like postal address
- MAC flat address: portability
  - can move interface from one LAN to another
  - recall IP address *not* portable: depends on IP subnet to which node is attached

# ARP: address resolution protocol

*Question:* how to determine interface's MAC address, knowing its IP address?




ARP table: each IP node (host, router) on LAN has table

- IP/MAC address mappings for some LAN nodes:

  < IP address; MAC address; TTL>
- TTL (Time To Live): time after which address mapping will be forgotten (typically 20 min)

# ARP protocol in action

## example: A wants to send datagram to B

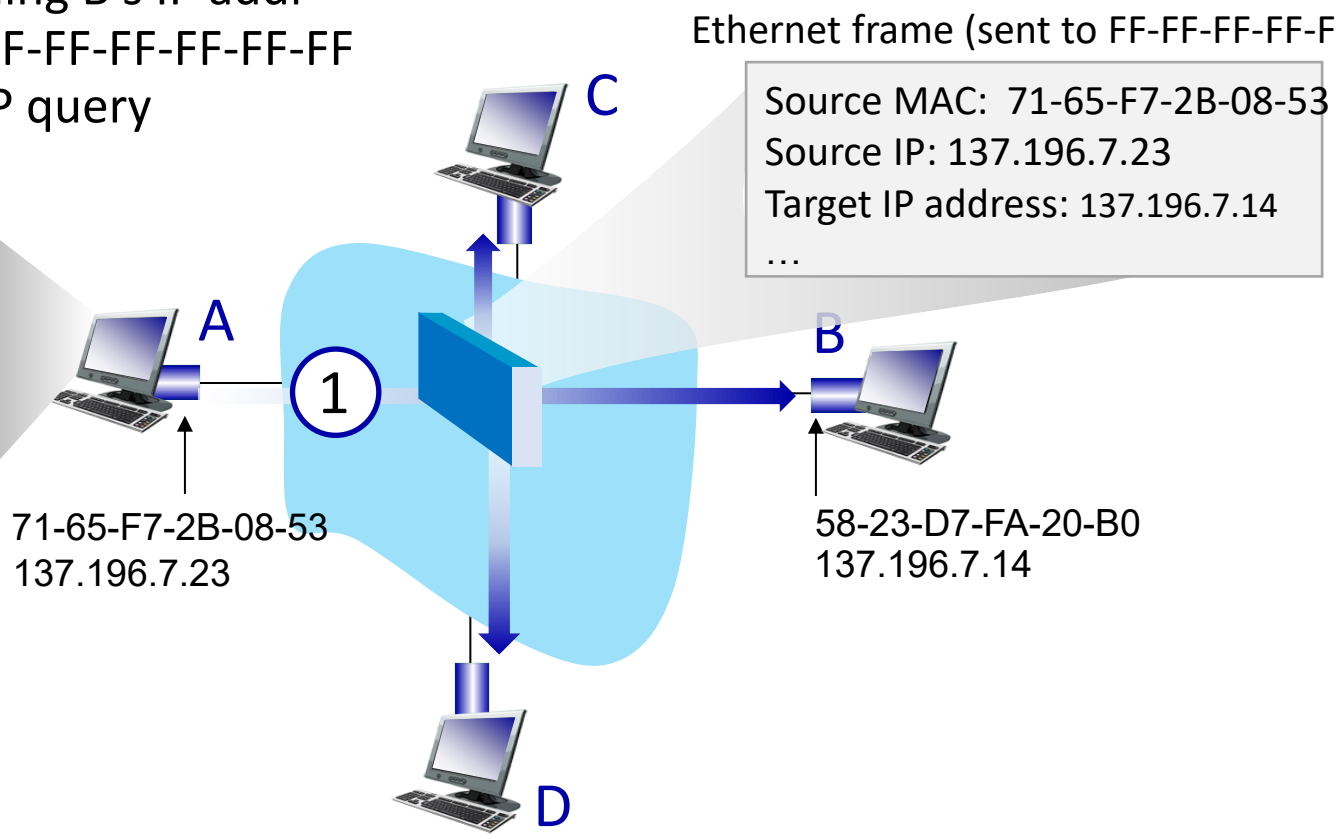
- B's MAC address not in A's ARP table, so A uses ARP to find B's MAC address

A broadcasts ARP query, containing B's IP addr

1
- destination MAC address = FF-FF-FF-FF-FF-FF
- all nodes on LAN receive ARP query

ARP table in A

| IP addr | MAC addr | TTL |
|---|---|---|
| | | |



# ARP protocol in action

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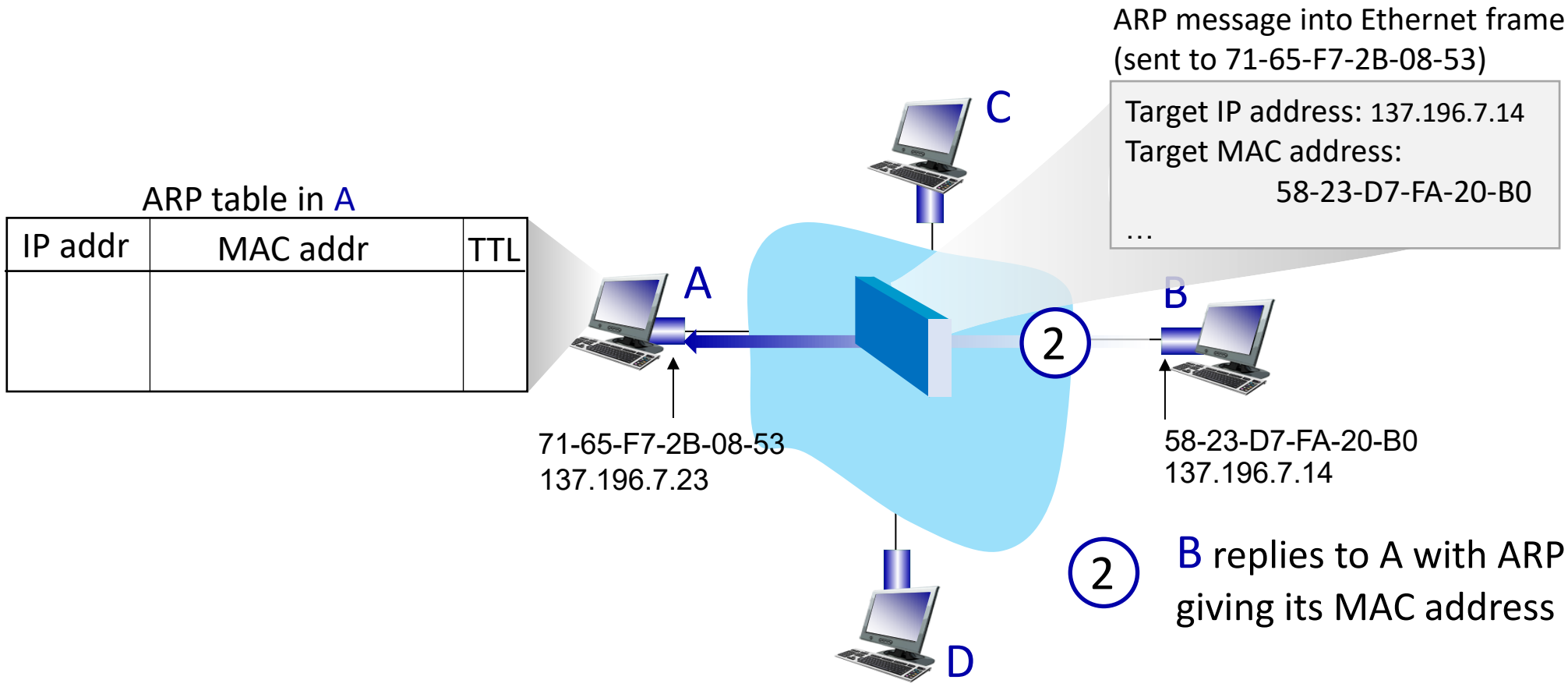


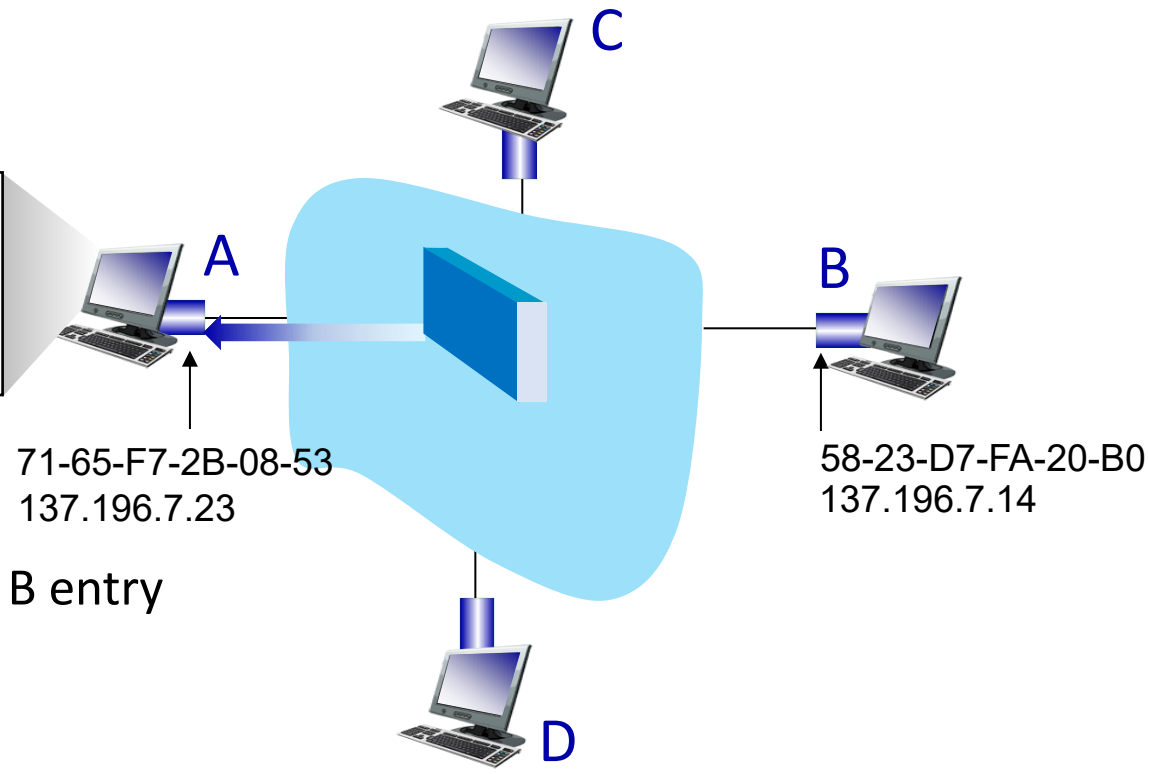
# ARP protocol in action

example: A wants to send datagram to B

- B's MAC address not in A's ARP table, so A uses ARP to find B's MAC address

ARP table in A

| IP addr | MAC addr | TTL |
|---|---|---|
| 137.196.7.14 | 58-23-D7-FA-20-B0 | 500 |

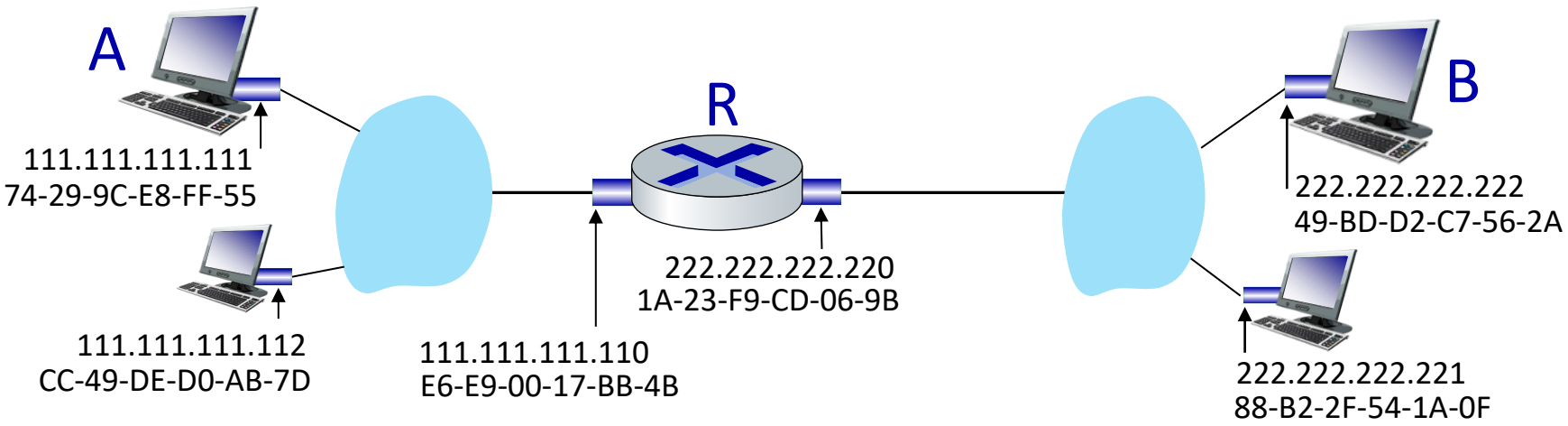



3 A receives B's reply, adds B entry into its local ARP table

# Routing to another subnet: addressing

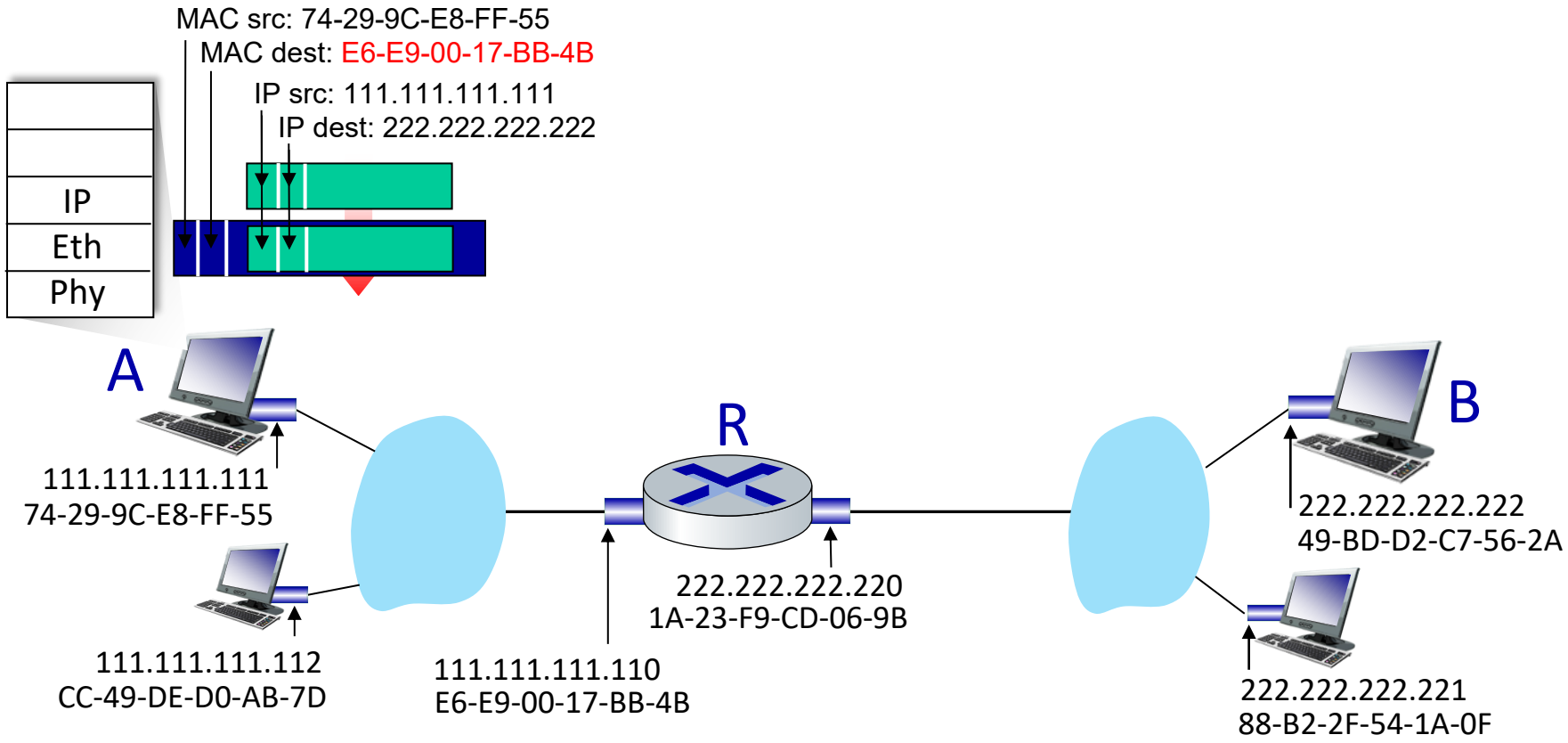
walkthrough: sending a datagram from *A* to *B* via *R*

- focus on addressing – at IP (datagram) and MAC layer (frame) levels
- assume that:
  - A knows B's IP address
  - A knows IP address of first hop router, R (how?)
  - A knows R's MAC address (how?)



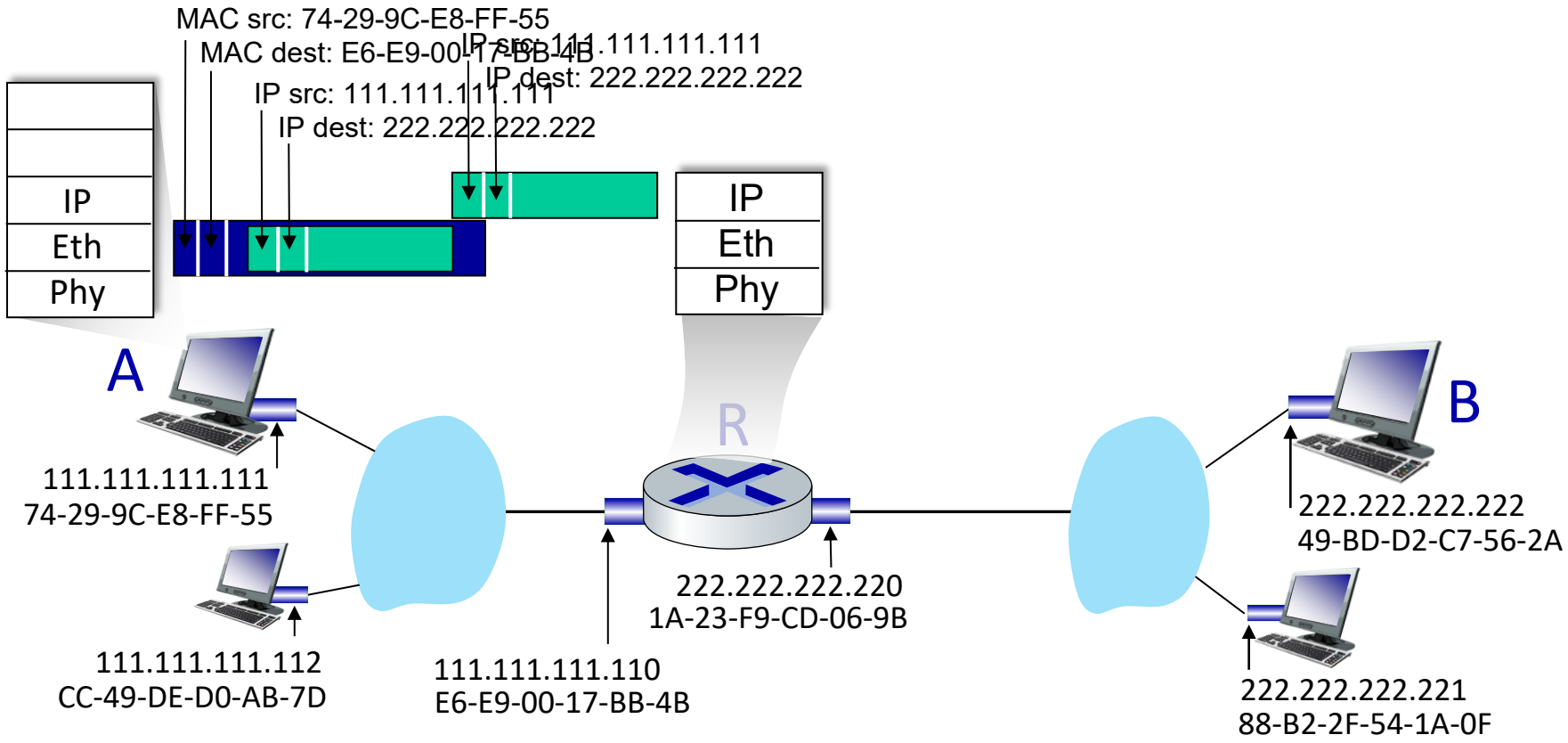
# Routing to another subnet: addressing

- A creates IP datagram with IP source A, destination B
- A creates link-layer frame containing A-to-B IP datagram
  - R's MAC address is frame's destination



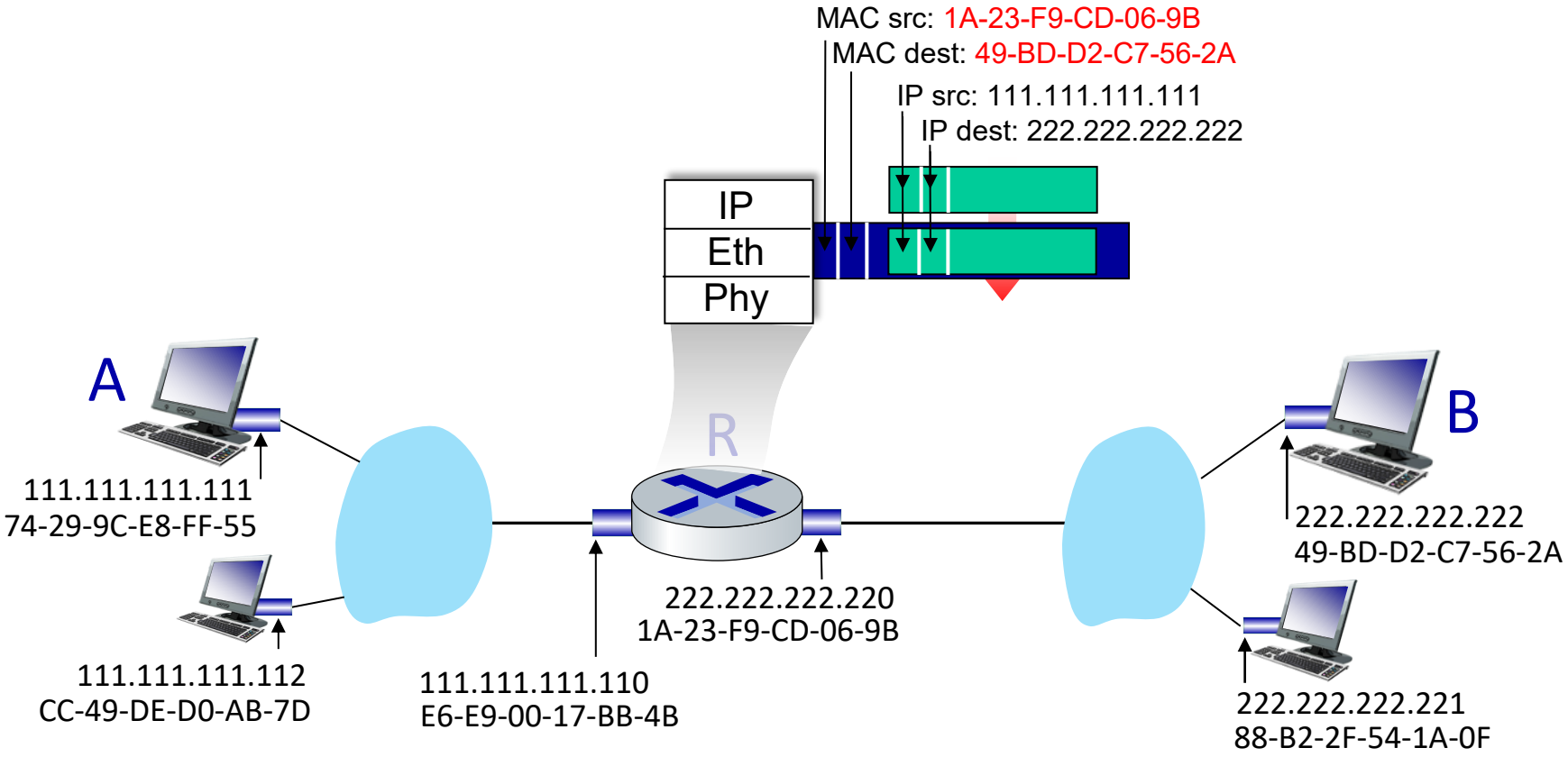
# Routing to another subnet: addressing

- frame sent from A to R
- frame received at R, datagram removed, passed up to IP



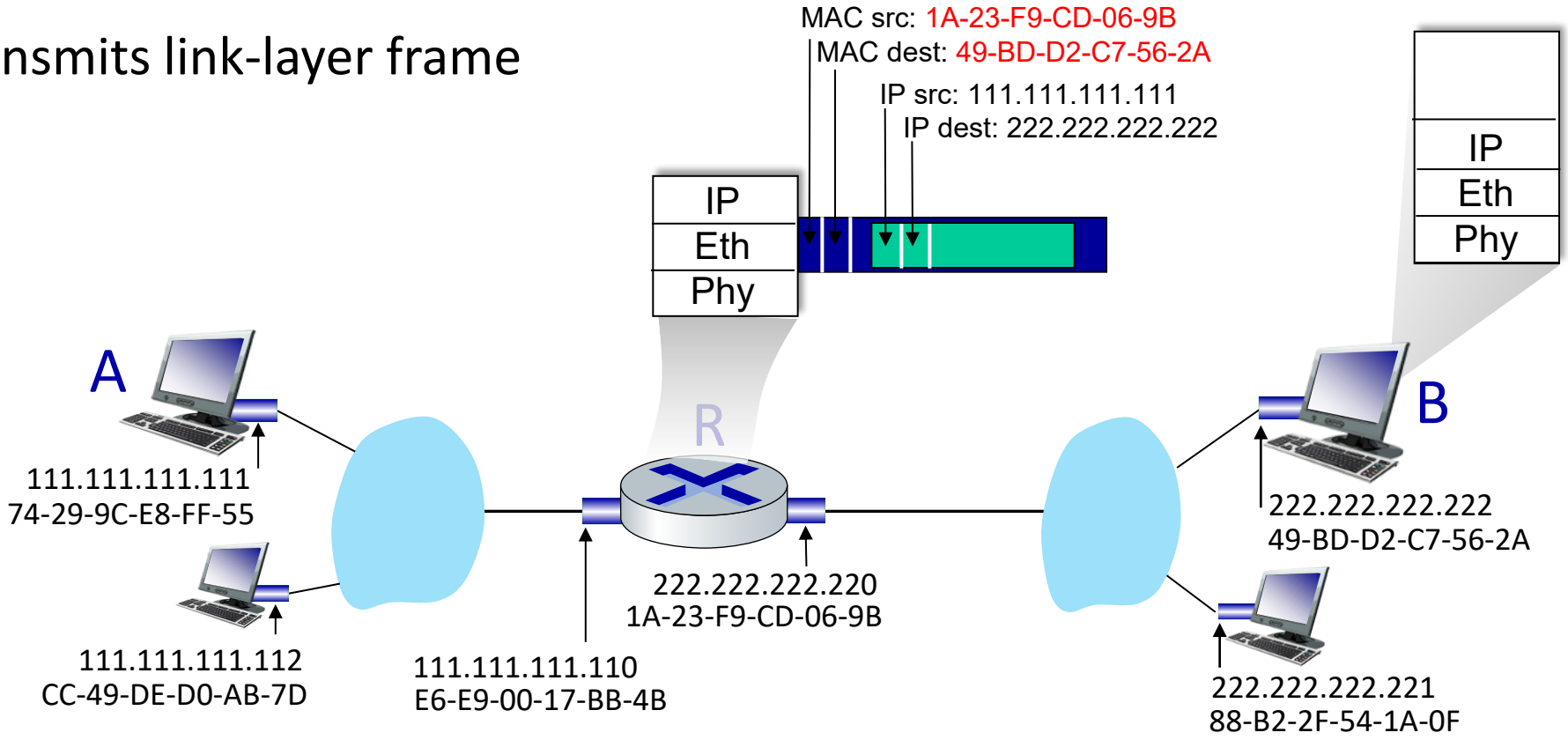
# Routing to another subnet: addressing

- R determines outgoing interface, passes datagram with IP source A, destination B to link layer
- R creates link-layer frame containing A-to-B IP datagram. Frame destination address: B's MAC address



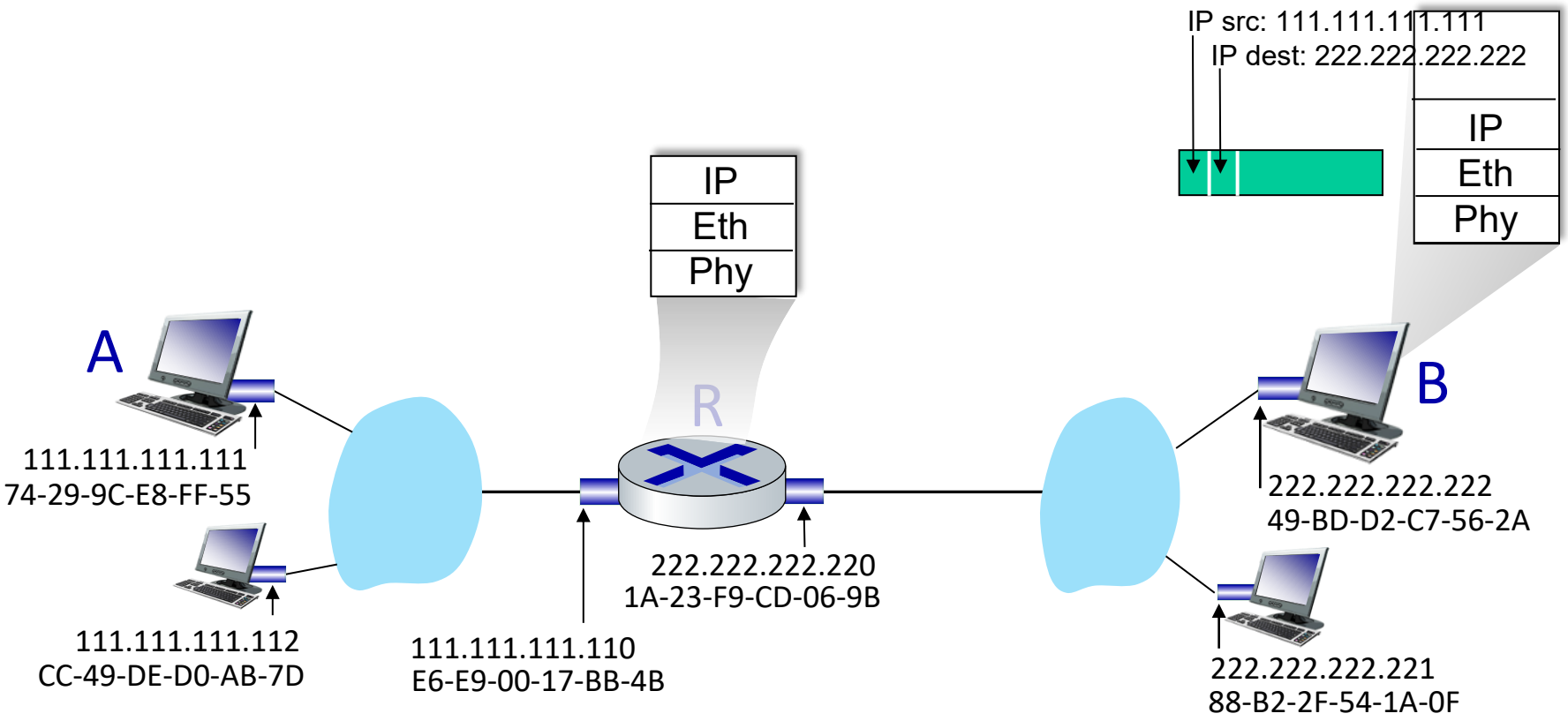
# Routing to another subnet: addressing

- R determines outgoing interface, passes datagram with IP source A, destination B to link layer
- R creates link-layer frame containing A-to-B IP datagram. Frame destination address: B's MAC address
- transmits link-layer frame



# Routing to another subnet: addressing

- B receives frame, extracts IP datagram destination B
- B passes datagram up protocol stack to IP



# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

- introduction
- error detection, correction
- multiple access protocols
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
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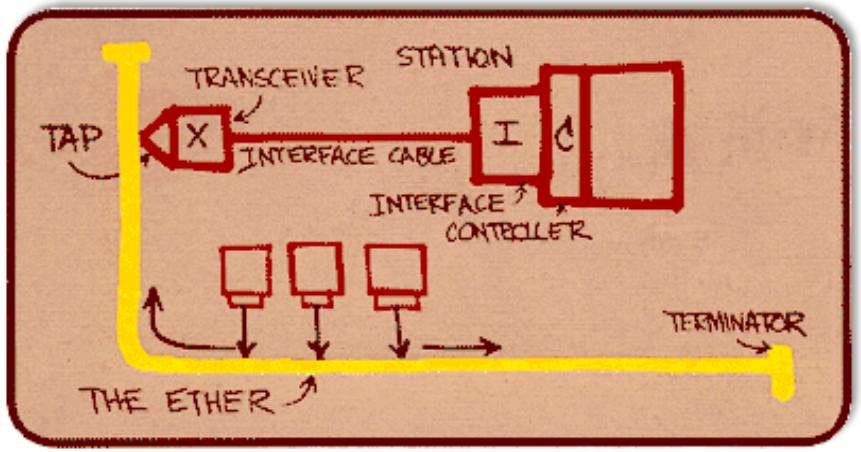
# Ethernet

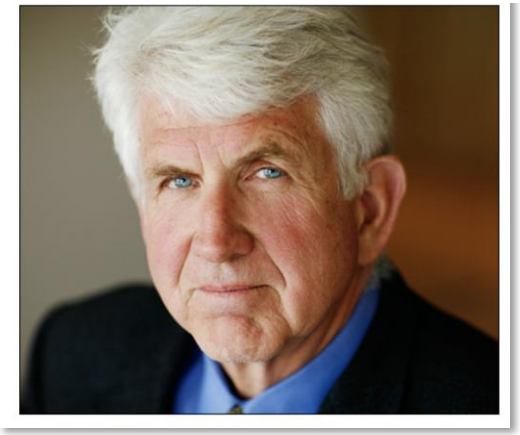
"dominant" wired LAN technology:

- first widely used LAN technology
- simpler, cheap
- kept up with speed race: 10 Mbps – 400 Gbps
- single chip, multiple speeds (e.g., Broadcom BCM5761)

*Metcalfe's Ethernet sketch*




Bob Metcalfe: Ethernet co-inventor, 2022 ACM Turing Award recipient

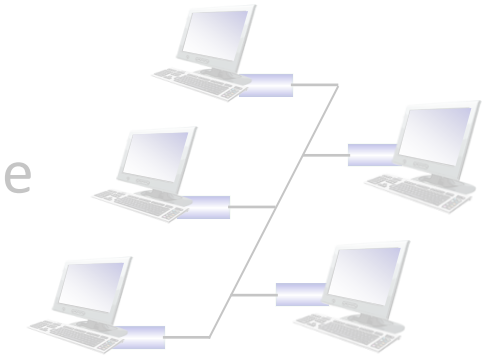


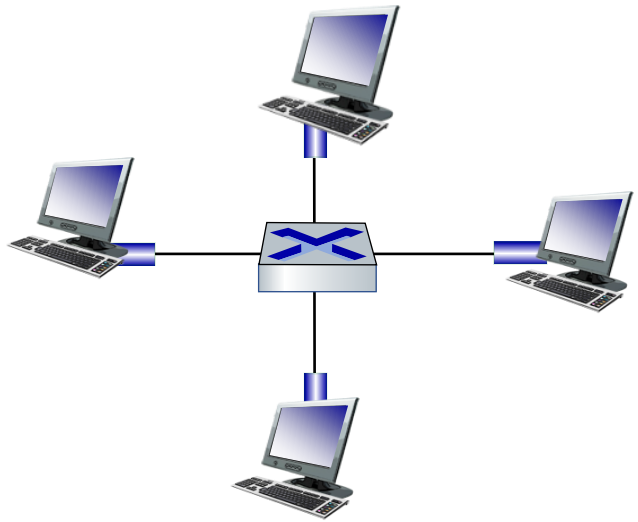
https://www.uspto.gov/learning-and-resources/journeys-innovation/audio-stories/defying-doubters

# Ethernet: physical topology

- bus: popular through mid 90s
  - all nodes in same collision domain (can collide with each other)
- switched: prevails today
  - active link-layer 2 *switch* in center
  - each “spoke” runs a (separate) Ethernet protocol (nodes do not collide with each other)

bus: coaxial cable





switched

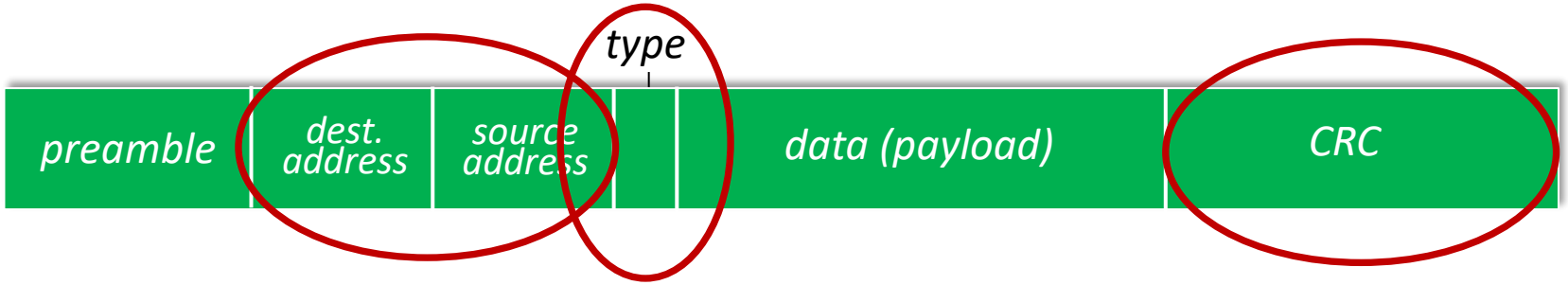
# Ethernet frame structure

sending interface encapsulates IP datagram (or other network layer protocol packet) in Ethernet frame

*preamble:*

- used to synchronize receiver, sender clock rates
- 7 bytes of 10101010 followed by one byte of 10101011

# Ethernet frame structure (more)



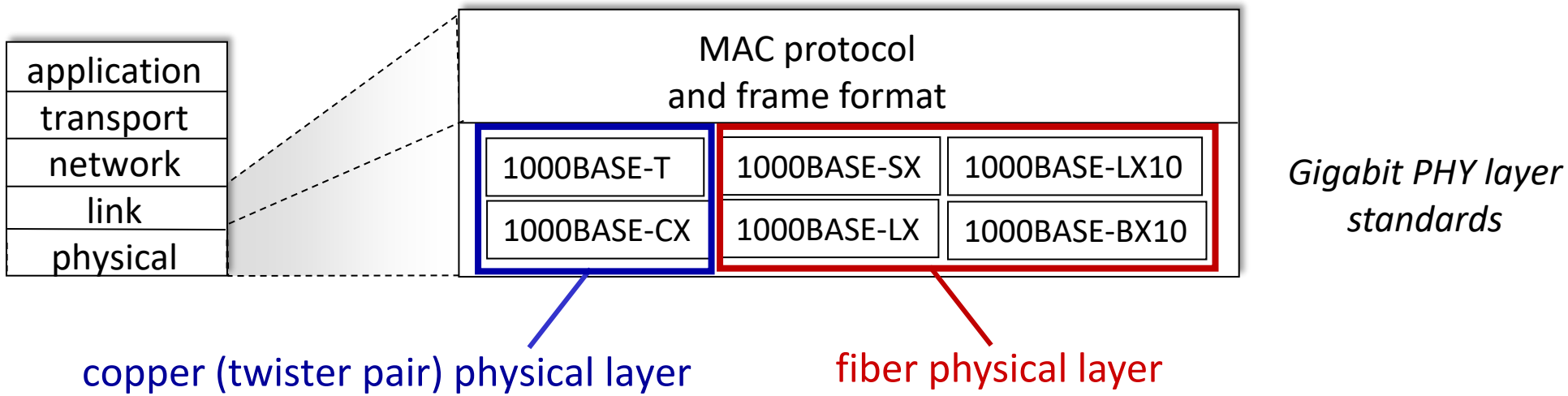

- addresses: 6 byte source, destination MAC addresses
  - if adapter receives frame with matching destination address, or with broadcast address (e.g., ARP packet), it passes data in frame to network layer protocol
  - otherwise, adapter discards frame
- type: indicates higher layer protocol
  - mostly IP but others possible, e.g., Novell IPX, AppleTalk
  - used to demultiplex up at receiver
- CRC: cyclic redundancy check at receiver
  - error detected: frame is dropped

# Ethernet: unreliable, connectionless

- connectionless: no handshaking between sending and receiving NICs
- unreliable: receiving NIC doesn't send ACKs or NAKs to sending NIC
  - data in dropped frames recovered only if initial sender uses higher layer rdt (e.g., TCP), otherwise dropped data lost
- Ethernet's MAC protocol: unslotted CSMA/CD with binary backoff

# 802.3 Ethernet standards: link & physical layers

- *many* different Ethernet standards
  - common MAC protocol and frame format
  - different speeds: 2 Mbps, ... 100 Mbps, 1Gbps, 10 Gbps, 40 Gbps, 80 Gbps
    - different physical layer media: fiber, cable



# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

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- error detection, correction
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  - Ethernet
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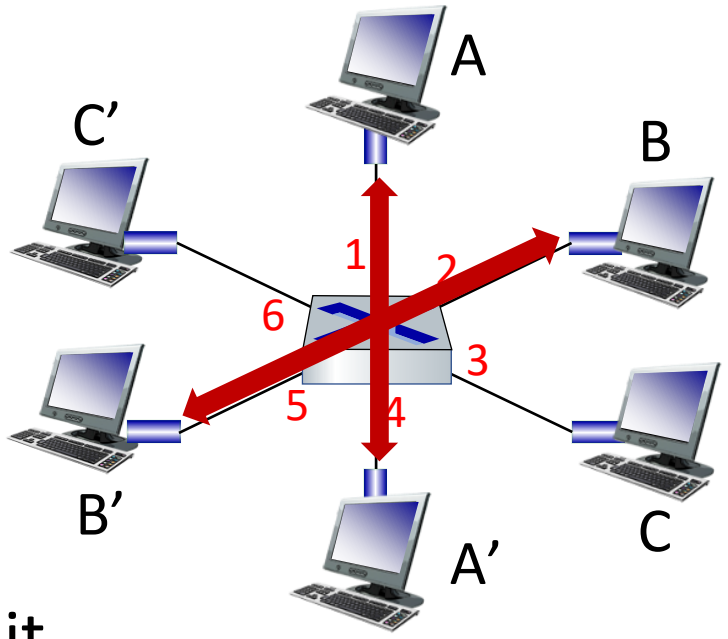
# Ethernet switch

- Switch is a link-layer device: takes an *active* role
  - store, forward Ethernet (or other type of) frames
  - examine incoming frame's MAC address, *selectively* forward frame to one-or-more outgoing links when frame is to be forwarded on segment, uses CSMA/CD to access segment
- transparent: hosts *unaware* of presence of switches
- plug-and-play, self-learning
  - switches do not need to be configured

# Switch: multiple simultaneous transmissions

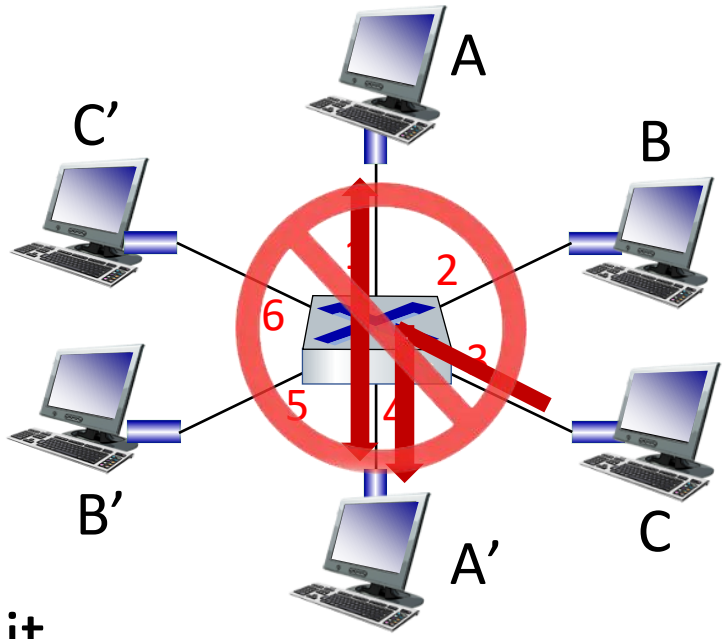
- hosts have dedicated, direct connection to switch
- switches buffer packets
- Ethernet protocol used on *each* incoming link, so:
  - no collisions; full duplex
  - each link is its own collision domain
- switching: A-to-A' and B-to-B' can transmit simultaneously, without collisions




switch with six interfaces (1,2,3,4,5,6)

# Switch: multiple simultaneous transmissions

- hosts have dedicated, direct connection to switch
- switches buffer packets
- Ethernet protocol used on *each* incoming link, so:
  - no collisions; full duplex
  - each link is its own collision domain
- switching: A-to-A' and B-to-B' can transmit simultaneously, without collisions
  - but A-to-A' and C to A' can *not* happen simultaneously




switch with six interfaces (1,2,3,4,5,6)

# Switch forwarding table

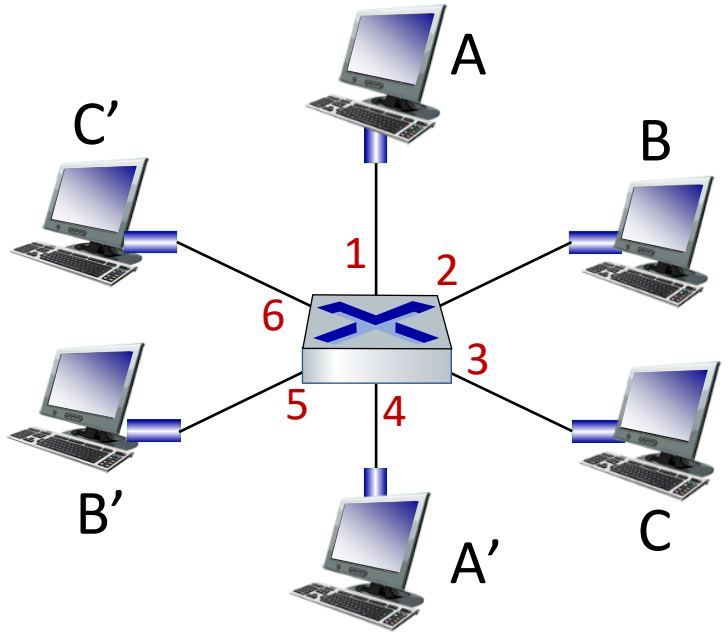
*Q:* how does switch know A' reachable via interface 4, B' reachable via interface 5?

*A:* each switch has a switch table, each entry:

- (MAC address of host, interface to reach host, time stamp)
- looks like a routing table!

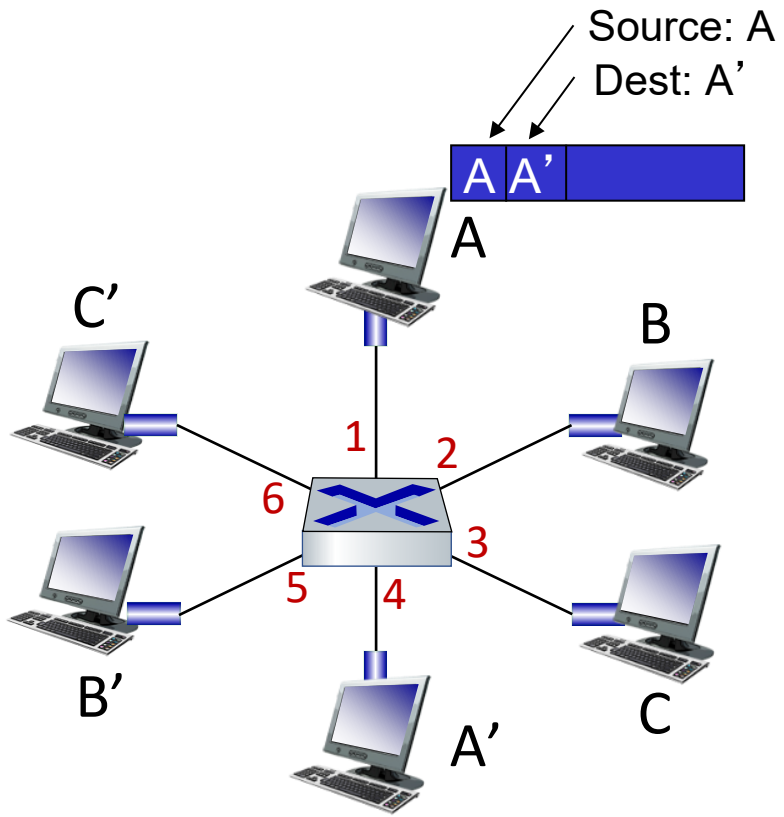
*Q:* how are entries created, maintained in switch table?

- something like a routing protocol?



# Switch: self-learning

- switch *learns* which hosts can be reached through which interfaces
  - when frame received, switch "learns" location of sender: incoming LAN segment
  - records sender/location pair in switch table




| MAC addr | interface | TTL |
|---|---|---|
| *A* | *1* | *60* |
| | | |
| | | |

*Switch table (initially empty)*

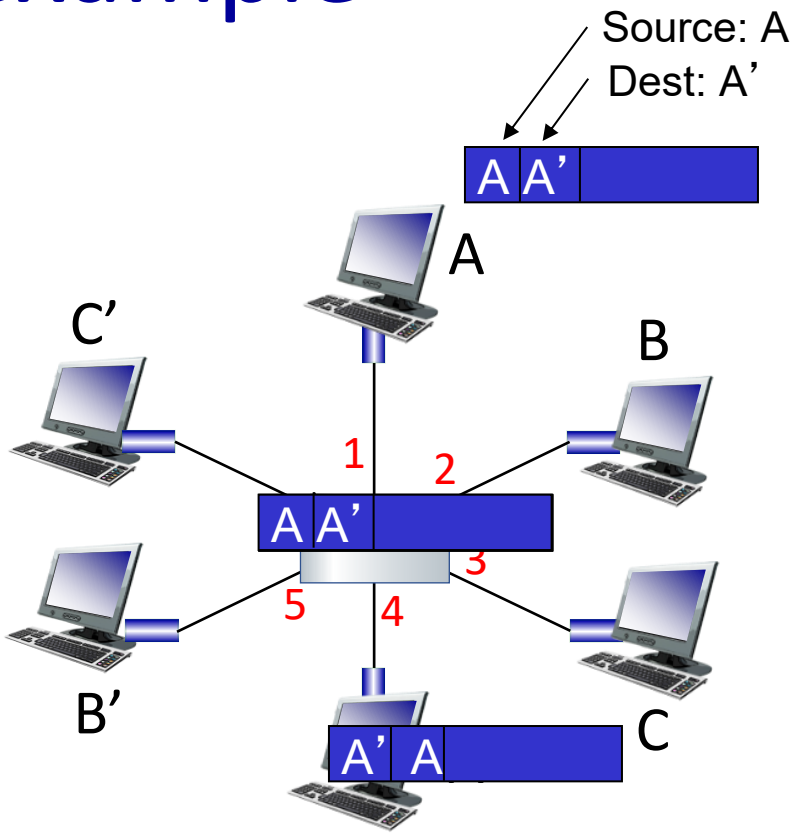
# Switch: frame filtering/forwarding

when frame received at switch:

1. record incoming link, MAC address of sending host
2. index switch table using MAC destination address
3. if entry found for destination
   then {
   if destination on segment from which frame arrived
      then drop frame
       else forward frame on interface indicated by entry
    }
   else flood /* forward on all interfaces except arriving interface */

# Self-learning, forwarding: example

- frame destination, A', location unknown: flood
- destination A location known: selectively send on just one link

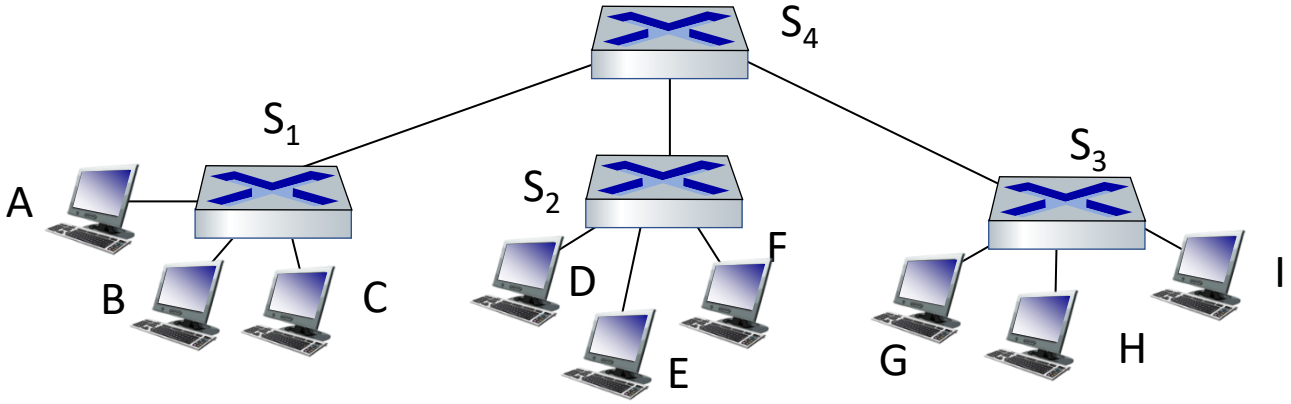



| MAC addr | interface | TTL |
|---|---|---|
| *A* | *1* | *60* |
| *A'* | *4* | *60* |

*switch table (initially empty)*

# Interconnecting switches

self-learning switches can be connected together:

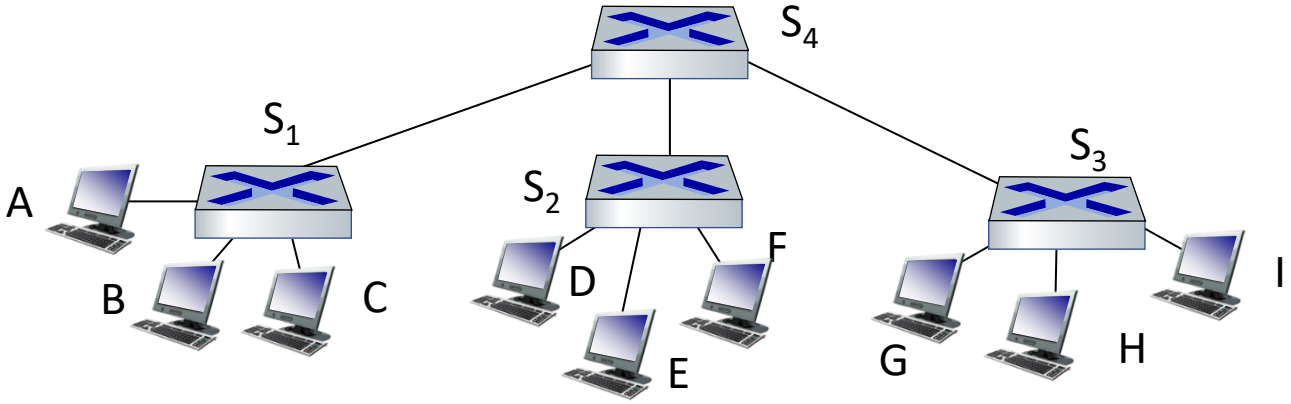



*Q:* sending from A to G - how does $S_1$ know to forward frame destined to G via $S_4$ and $S_3$?

- *A:* self learning! (works exactly the same as in single-switch case!)

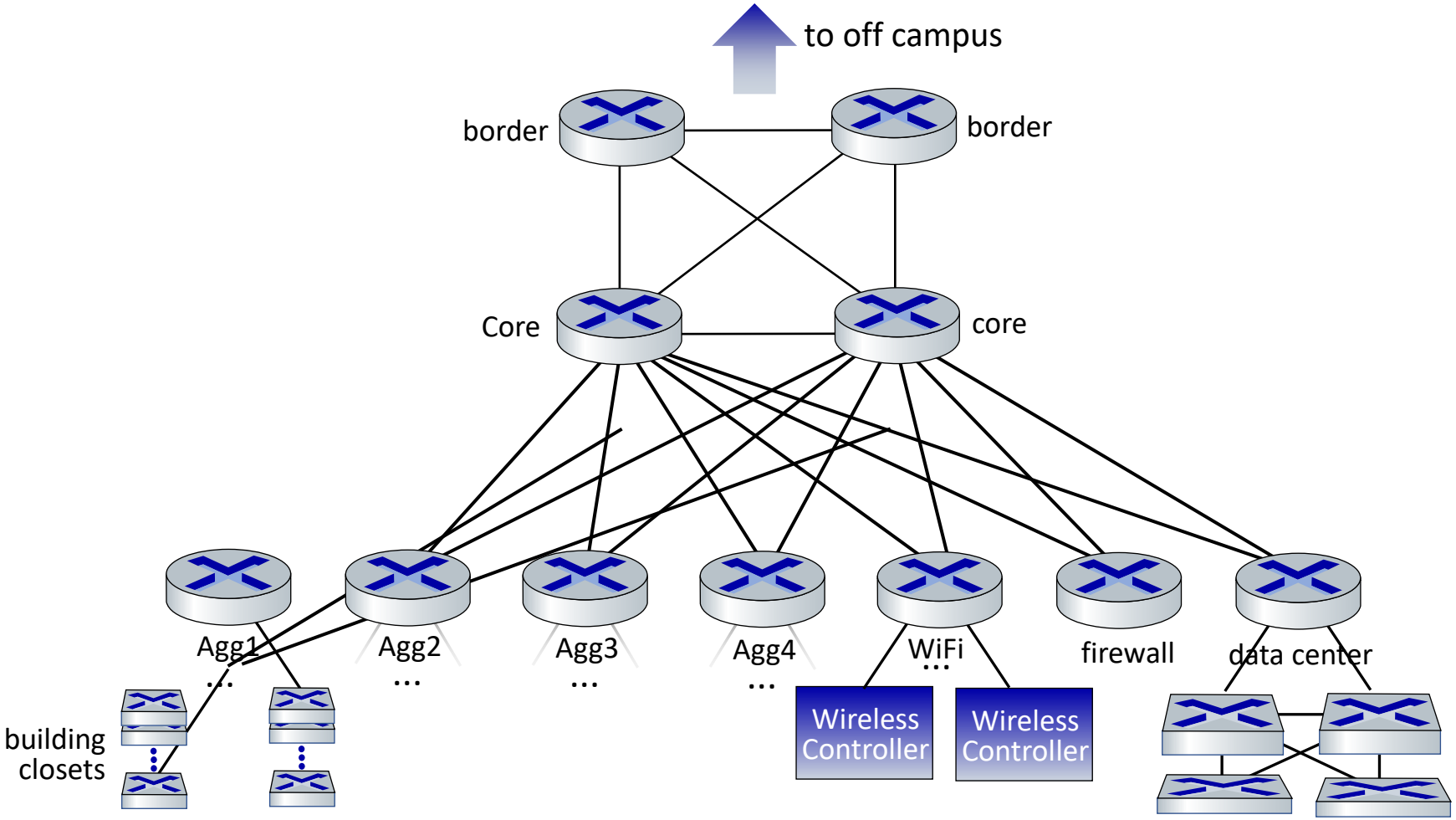
# Self-learning multi-switch example

Suppose C sends frame to I, I responds to C




Q: show switch tables and packet forwarding in $S_1$, $S_2$, $S_3$, $S_4$

# UMass Campus Network - Detail

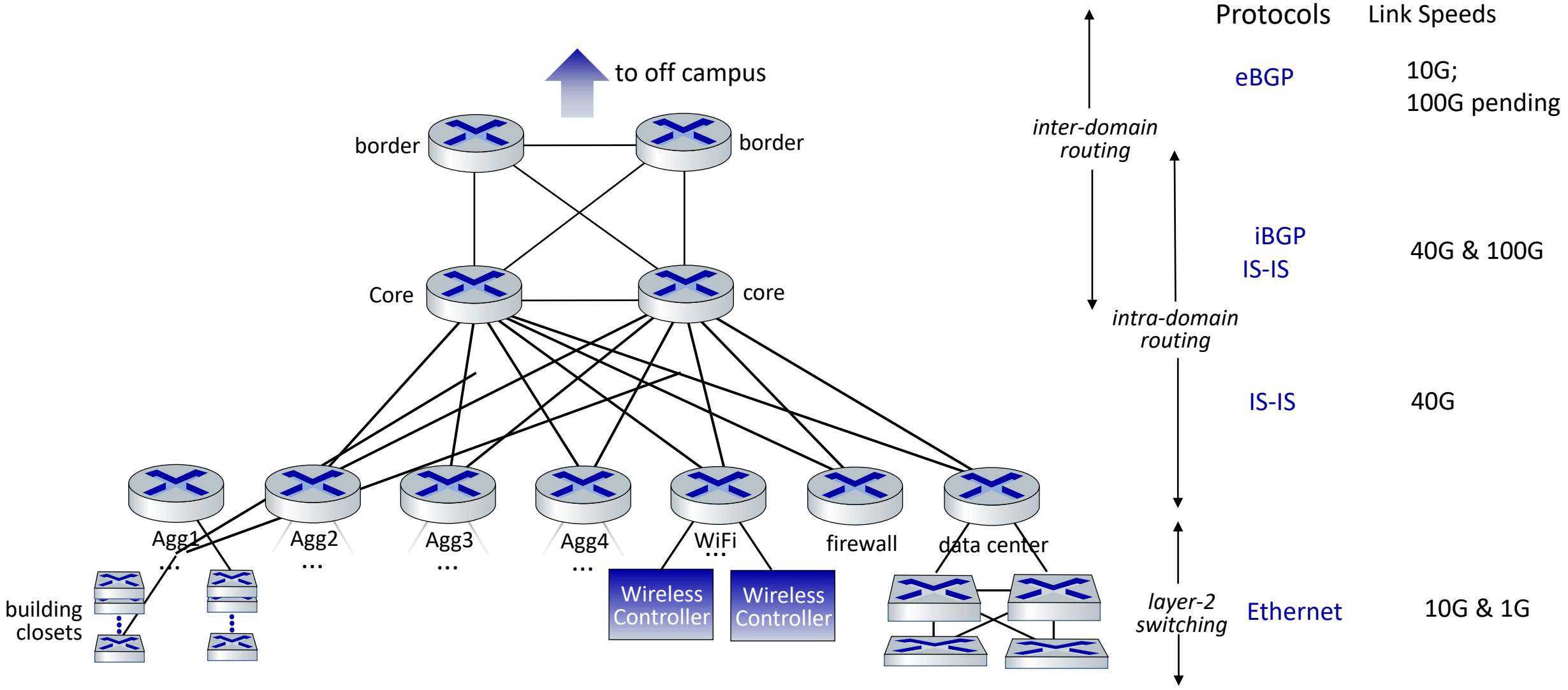



## UMass network:

- 4 firewalls
- 10 routers
- 2000+ network switches
- 6000 wireless access points
- 30000 active wired network jacks
- 55000 active end-user wireless devices

… all built, operated, maintained by ~15 people

# UMass Campus Network - Detail



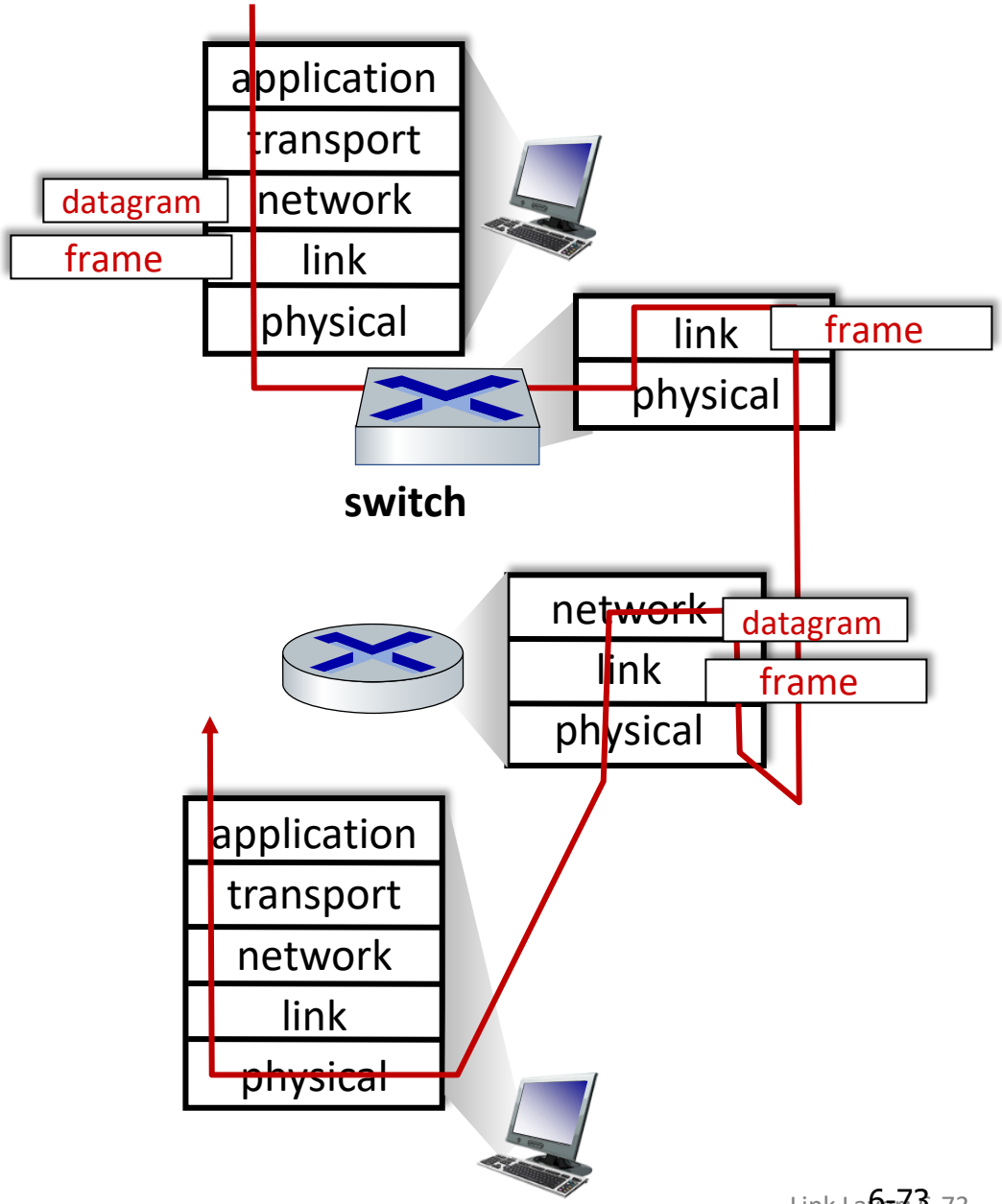
# Switches vs. routers

## both are store-and-forward:

- *routers*: network-layer devices (examine network-layer headers)
- *switches:* link-layer devices (examine link-layer headers)

## both have forwarding tables:

- *routers:* compute tables using routing algorithms, IP addresses
- *switches:* learn forwarding table using flooding, learning, MAC addresses



# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

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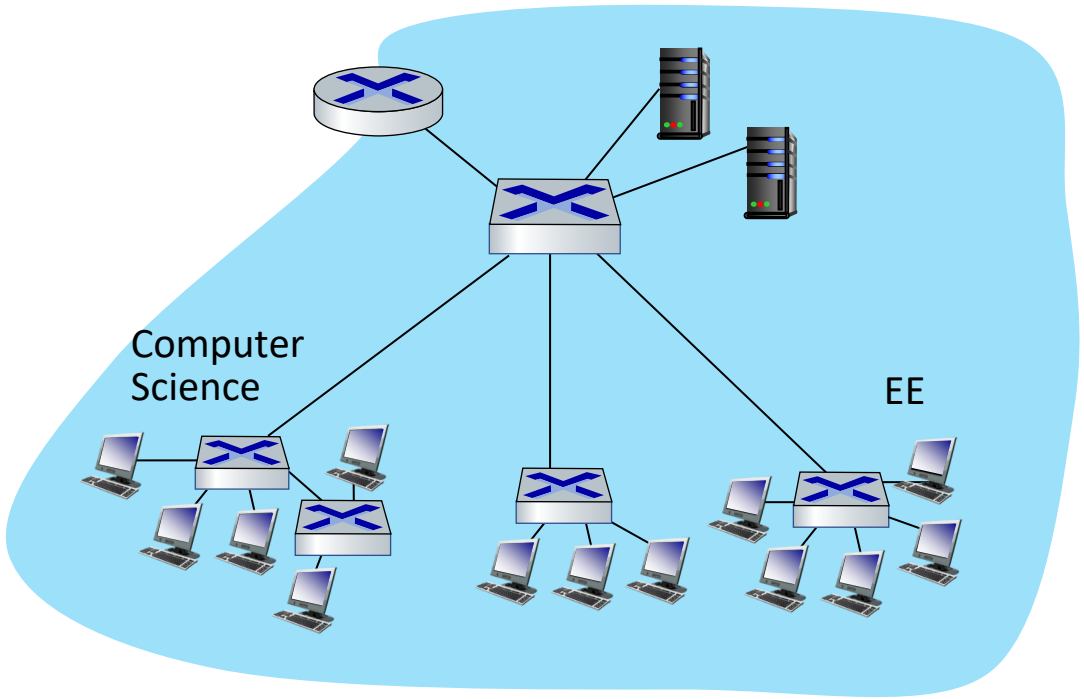
# Virtual LANs (VLANs): motivation

*Q:* what happens as LAN sizes scale, users change point of attachment?

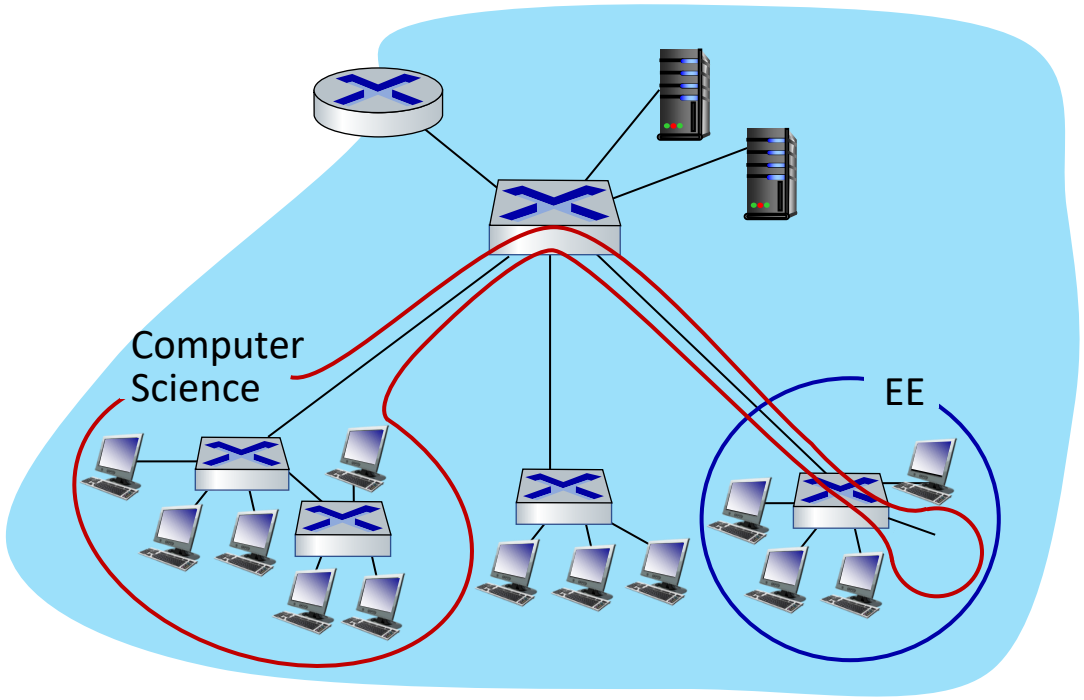



single broadcast domain:

- *scaling:* all layer-2 broadcast traffic (ARP, DHCP, unknown MAC) must cross entire LAN
- efficiency, security, privacy issues

# Virtual LANs (VLANs): motivation

*Q:* what happens as LAN sizes scale, users change point of attachment?




single broadcast domain:

- *scaling:* all layer-2 broadcast traffic (ARP, DHCP, unknown MAC) must cross entire LAN
- efficiency, security, privacy, efficiency issues

administrative issues:

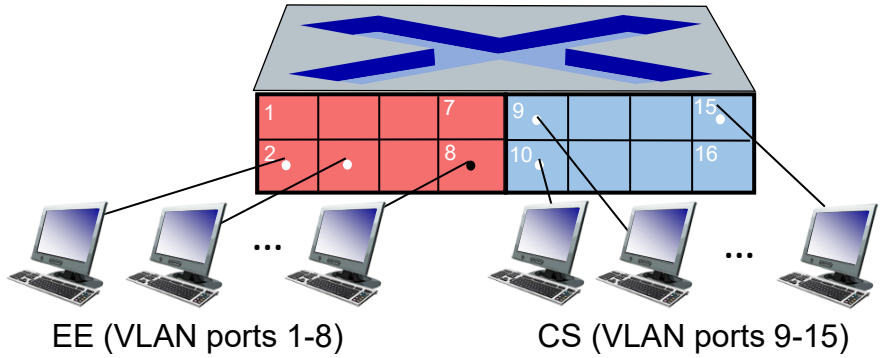
- CS user moves office to EE - *physically* attached to EE switch, but wants to remain *logically* attached to CS switch

# Port-based VLANs

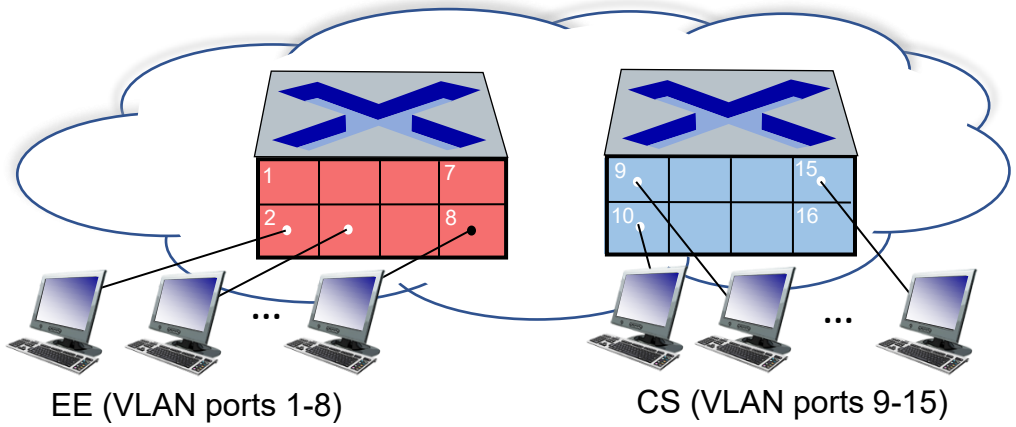
**Virtual Local Area Network (VLAN)**

switch(es) supporting VLAN capabilities can be configured to define multiple *virtual* LANS over single physical LAN infrastructure.

port-based VLAN: switch ports grouped (by switch management software) so that *single* physical switch ……

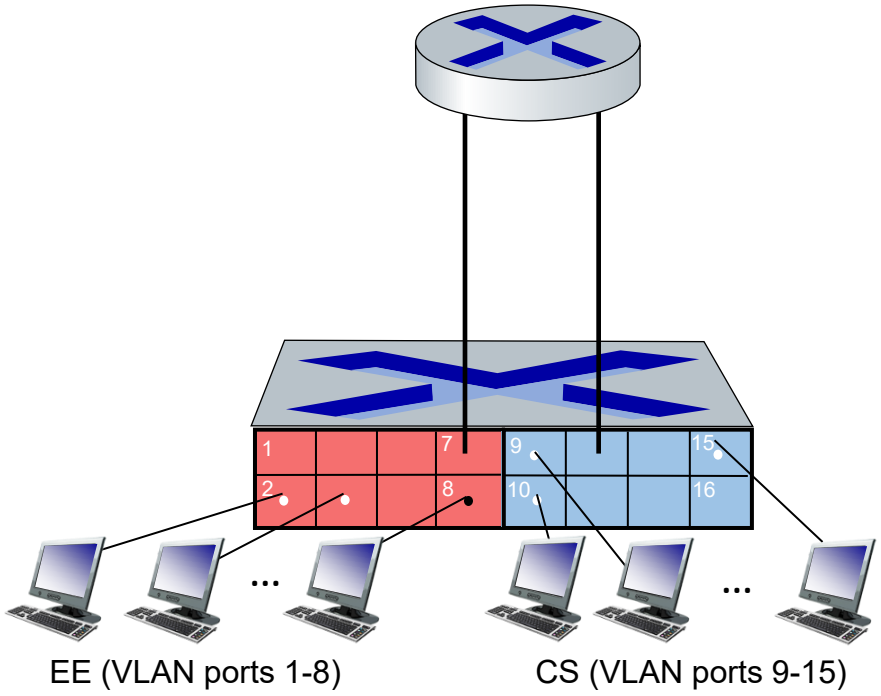



… operates as multiple virtual switches

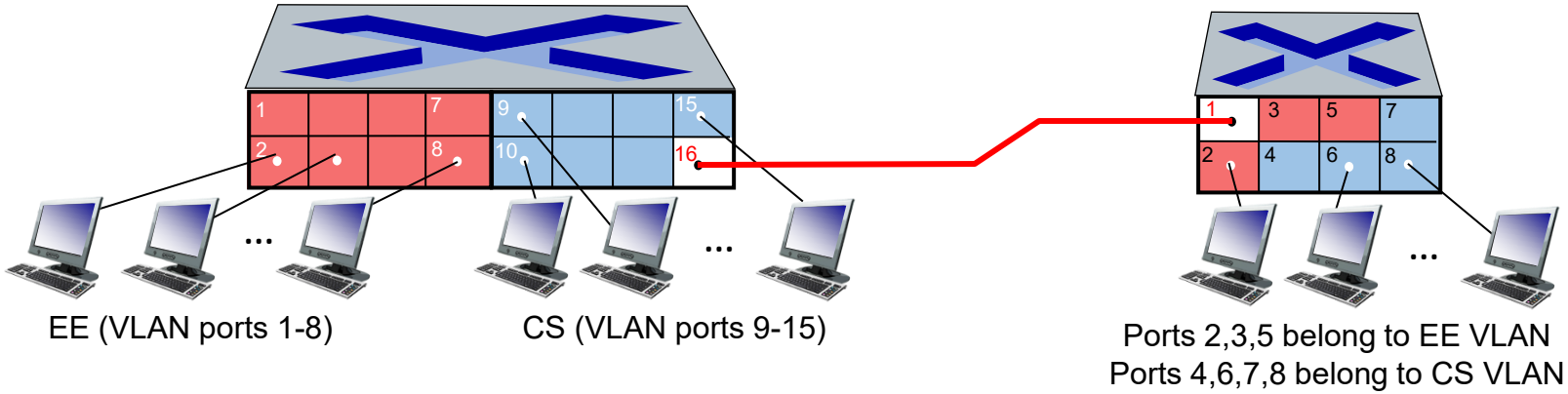


# Port-based VLANs

- traffic isolation: frames to/from ports 1-8 can *only* reach ports 1-8
  - can also define VLAN based on MAC addresses of endpoints, rather than switch port
- dynamic membership: ports can be dynamically assigned among VLANs
- forwarding between VLANS: done via routing (just as with separate switches)
  - in practice vendors sell combined switches plus routers



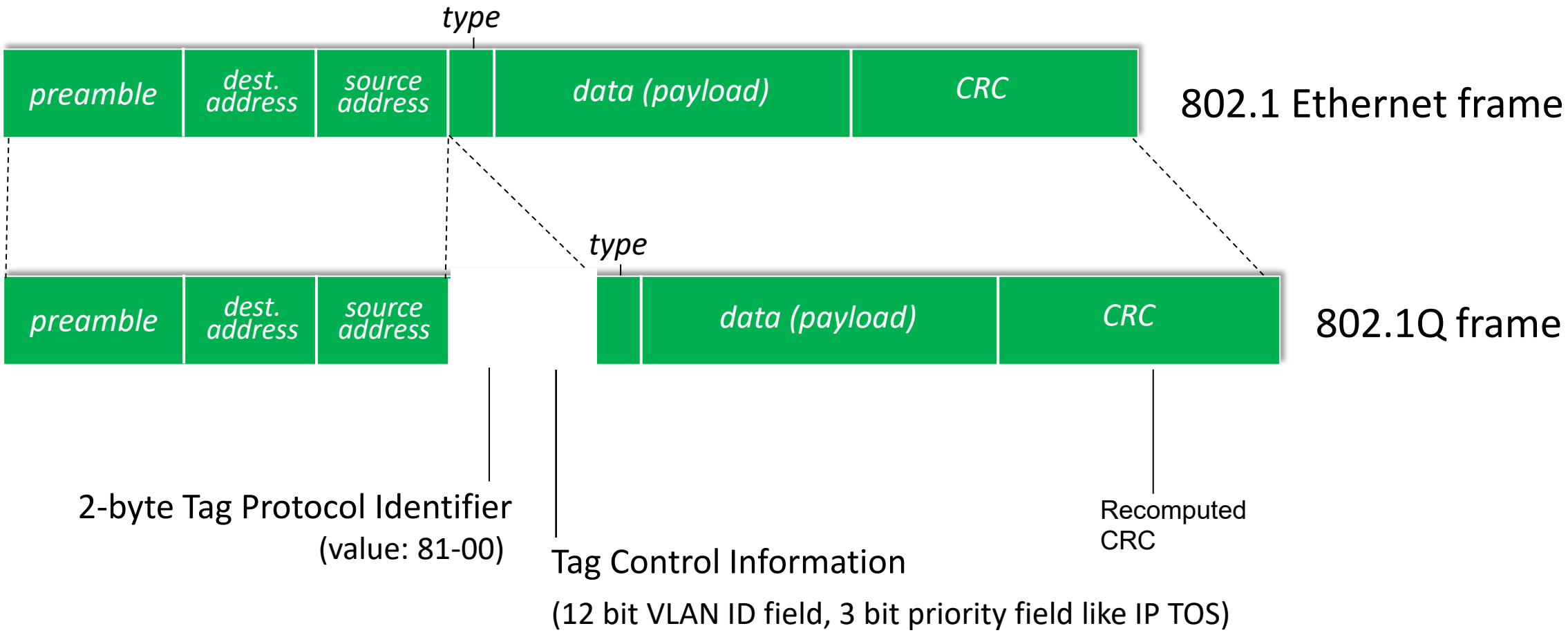
# VLANS spanning multiple switches



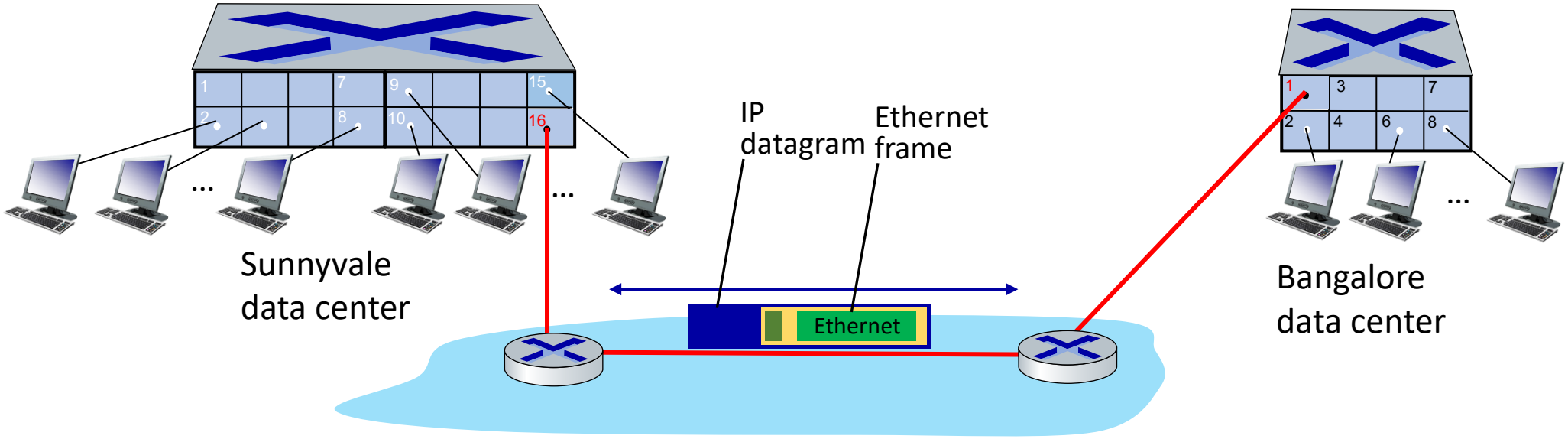

trunk port: carries frames between VLANS defined over multiple physical switches

- frames forwarded within VLAN between switches can't be vanilla 802.1 frames (must carry VLAN ID info)
- 802.1q protocol adds/removed additional header fields for frames forwarded between trunk ports

# 802.1Q VLAN frame format



# EVPN: Ethernet VPNs (aka VXLANs)




Layer-2 Ethernet switches *logically* connected to each other (e.g., using IP as an *underlay*)

- Ethernet frames carried *within* IP datagrams between sites
- "*tunneling* scheme to *overlay Layer 2 networks on top of Layer 3 networks* ... runs over the existing networking infrastructure and provides a means to "stretch" a Layer 2 network." [RFC 7348]

# EVPN: Ethernet VPNs (aka VXLANs)

Layer-2 Ethernet switches *logically* connected to each other (using IP as an *underlay*)

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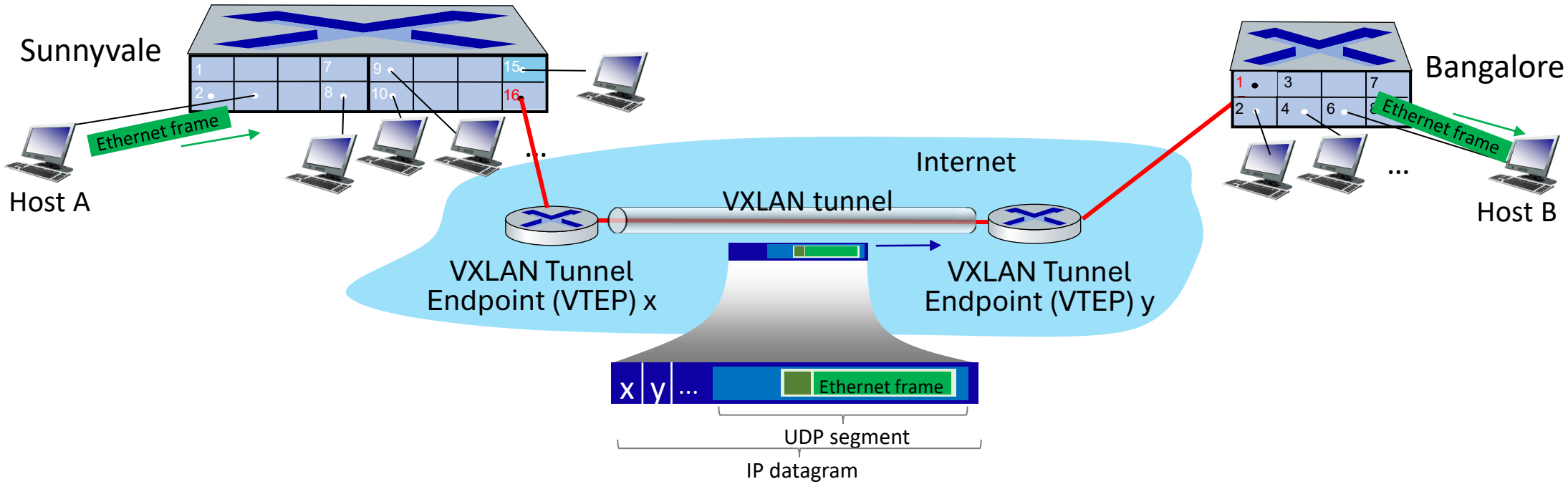


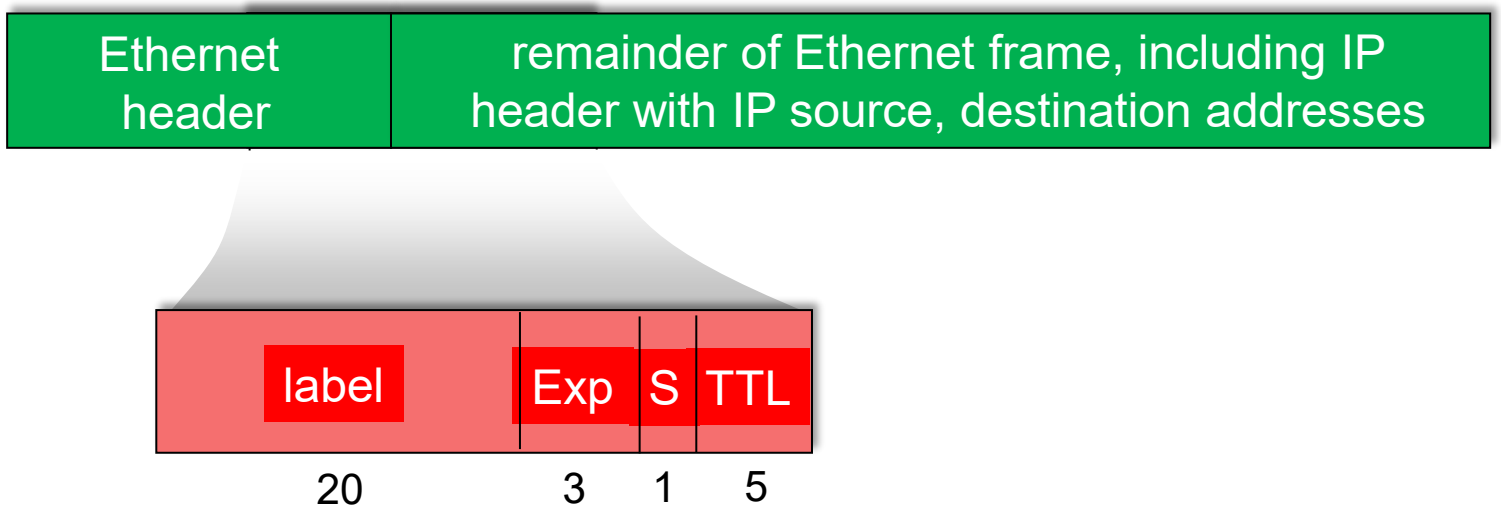
# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

- introduction
- error detection, correction
- multiple access protocols
- LANs
  - addressing, ARP
  - Ethernet
  - switches
  - VLANs
- link virtualization: MPLS
- data center networking

- a day in the life of a web request

# Multiprotocol label switching (MPLS)

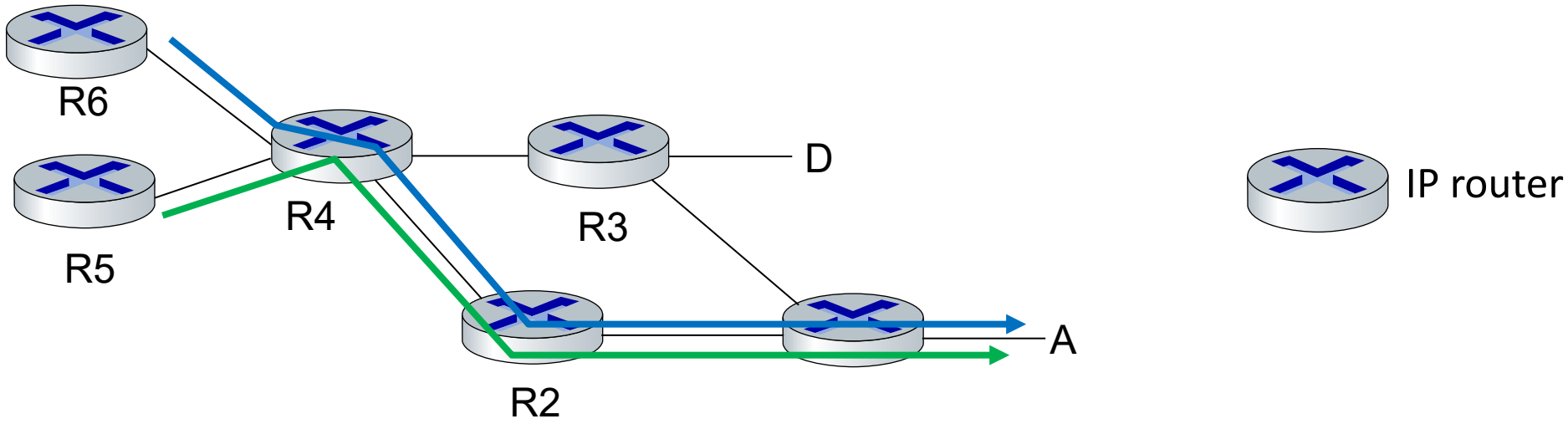
- goal: high-speed IP forwarding among network of MPLS-capable routers, using fixed length label (instead of shortest prefix matching)
  - faster lookup using fixed length identifier
  - borrowing ideas from Virtual Circuit (VC) approach
  - but IP datagram still keeps IP address!



# MPLS capable routers

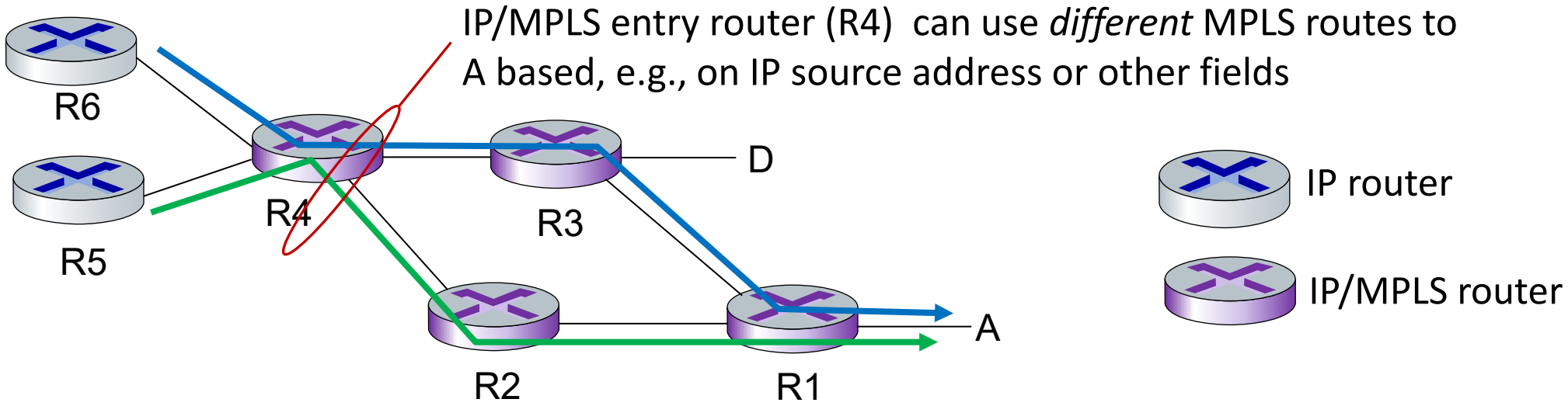
- a.k.a. label-switched router
- forward packets to outgoing interface based only on label value (*don't inspect IP address*)
  - MPLS forwarding table distinct from IP forwarding tables
- *flexibility:* MPLS forwarding decisions can *differ* from those of IP
  - use destination *and* source addresses to route flows to same destination differently (traffic engineering)
  - re-route flows quickly if link fails: pre-computed backup paths

# MPLS versus IP paths




- IP routing: path to destination determined by destination address alone

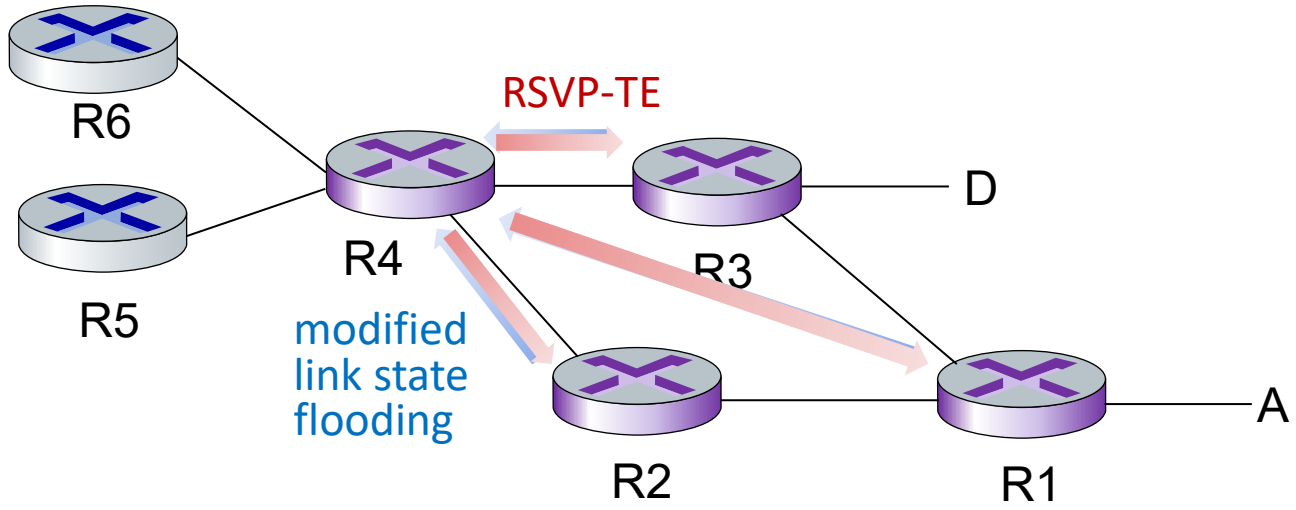
# MPLS versus IP paths



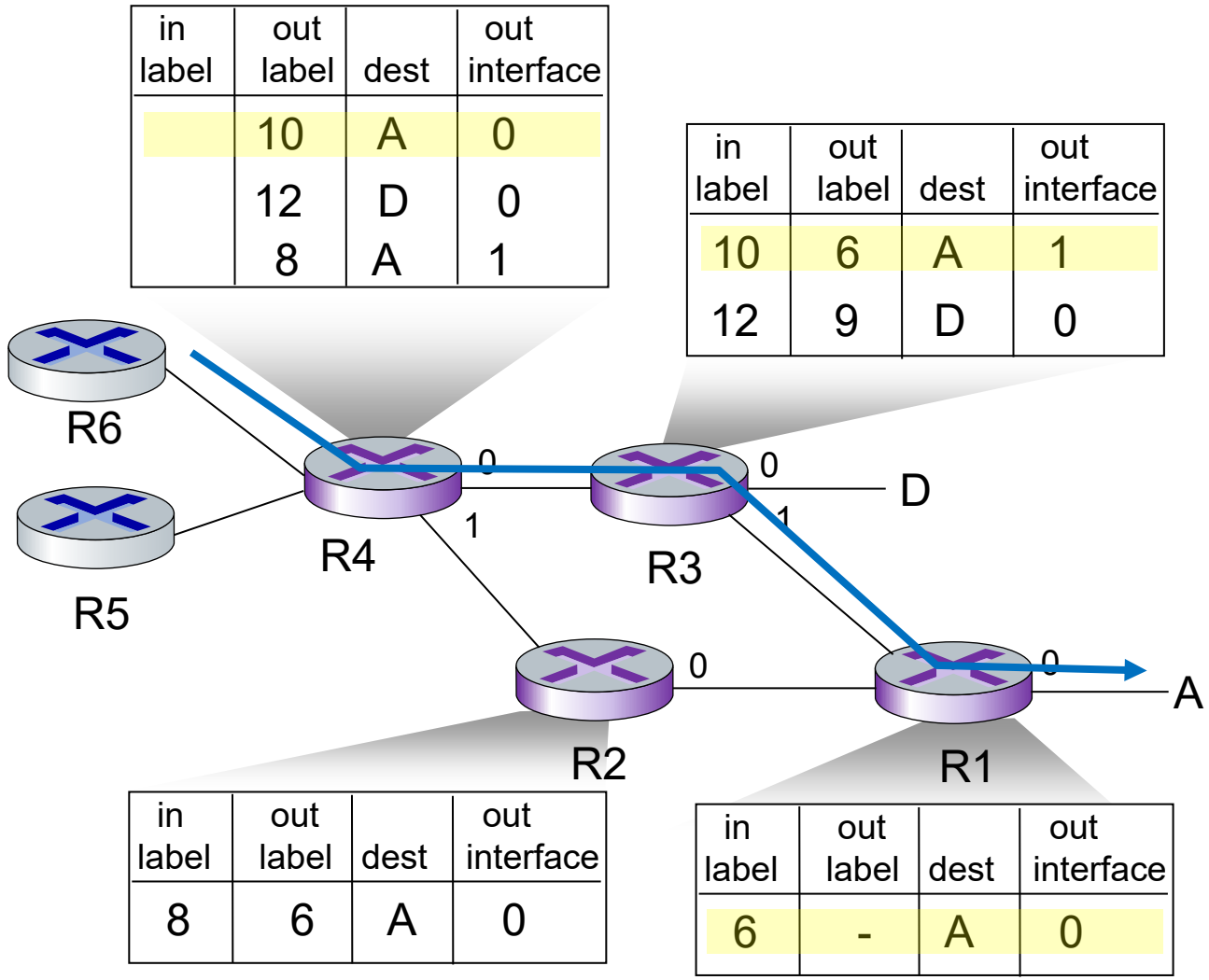

- IP routing: path to destination determined by destination address alone
- MPLS routing: path to destination can be based on source *and* destination address
  - flavor of generalized forwarding (MPLS 10 years earlier)
  - *fast reroute:* precompute backup routes in case of link failure

# MPLS signaling

- modify OSPF, IS-IS link-state flooding protocols to carry info used by MPLS routing:
  - e.g., link bandwidth, amount of "reserved" link bandwidth
- entry MPLS router uses RSVP-TE signaling protocol to set up MPLS forwarding at downstream routers



# MPLS forwarding tables



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# Datacenter networks

10’s to 100’s of thousands of hosts, often closely coupled, in close proximity:

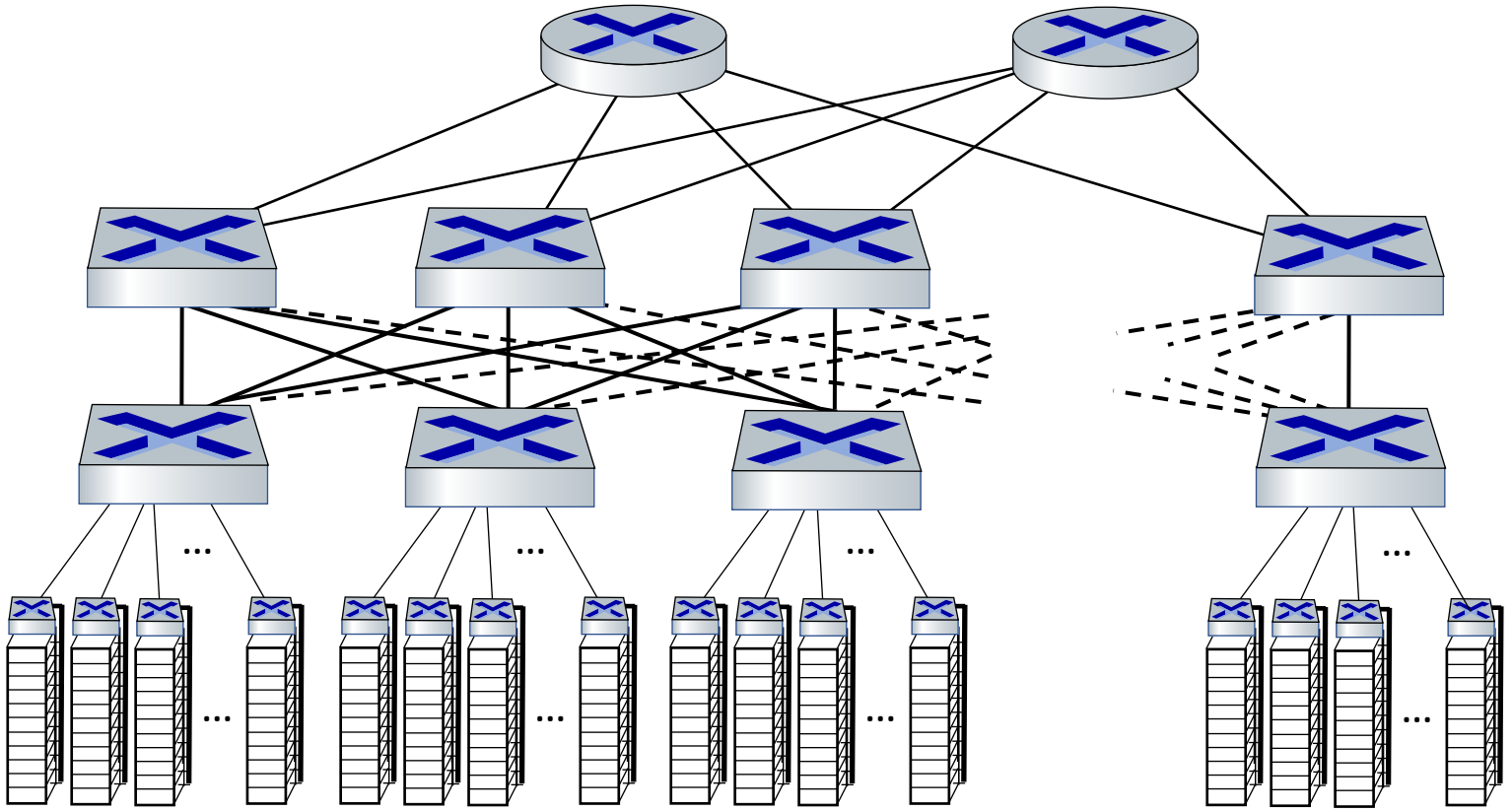
- e-business (e.g. Amazon)
- content-servers (e.g., YouTube, Akamai, Apple, Microsoft)
- search engines, data mining (e.g., Google)

challenges:

- multiple applications, each serving massive numbers of clients
- reliability
- managing/balancing load, avoiding processing, networking, data bottlenecks

Inside a 40-ft Microsoft container, Chicago data center

# Datacenter networks: network elements



## Border routers

- connections outside datacenter

## Tier-1 (Core) switches

- connecting to ~16 T-2s below

## Tier-2 (Aggregation) switches

- connecting to ~16 TORs below

## Top of Rack (TOR) (Access) switches

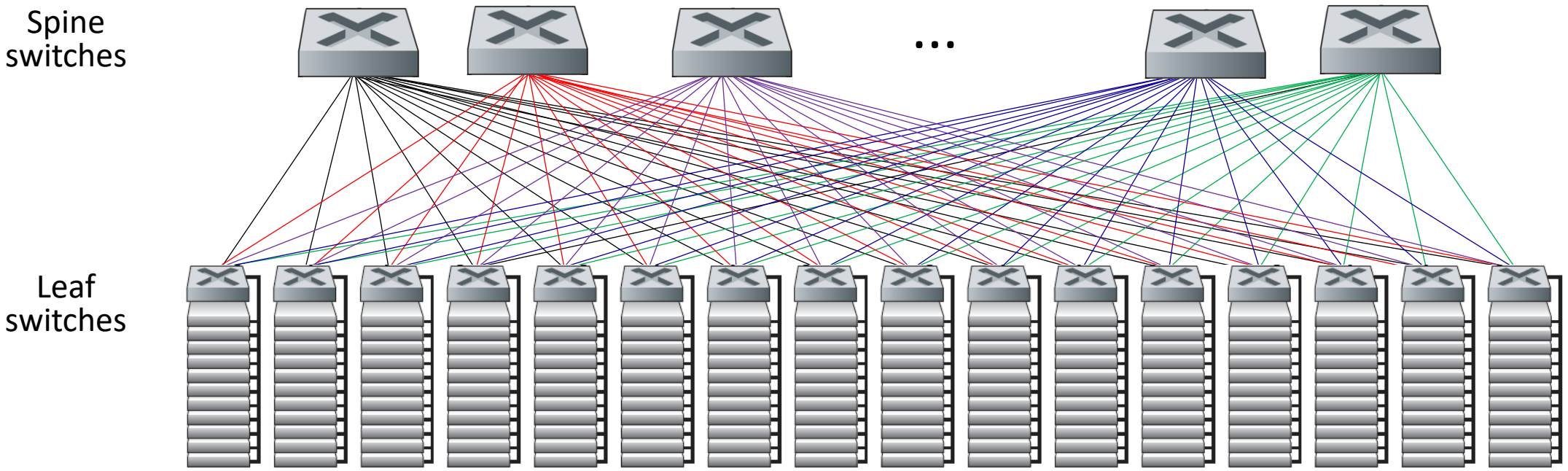
- one per rack, 100G-400G Ethernet to blades

## Server racks

- 20- 40 server blades: hosts

# Datacenter networks: network elements

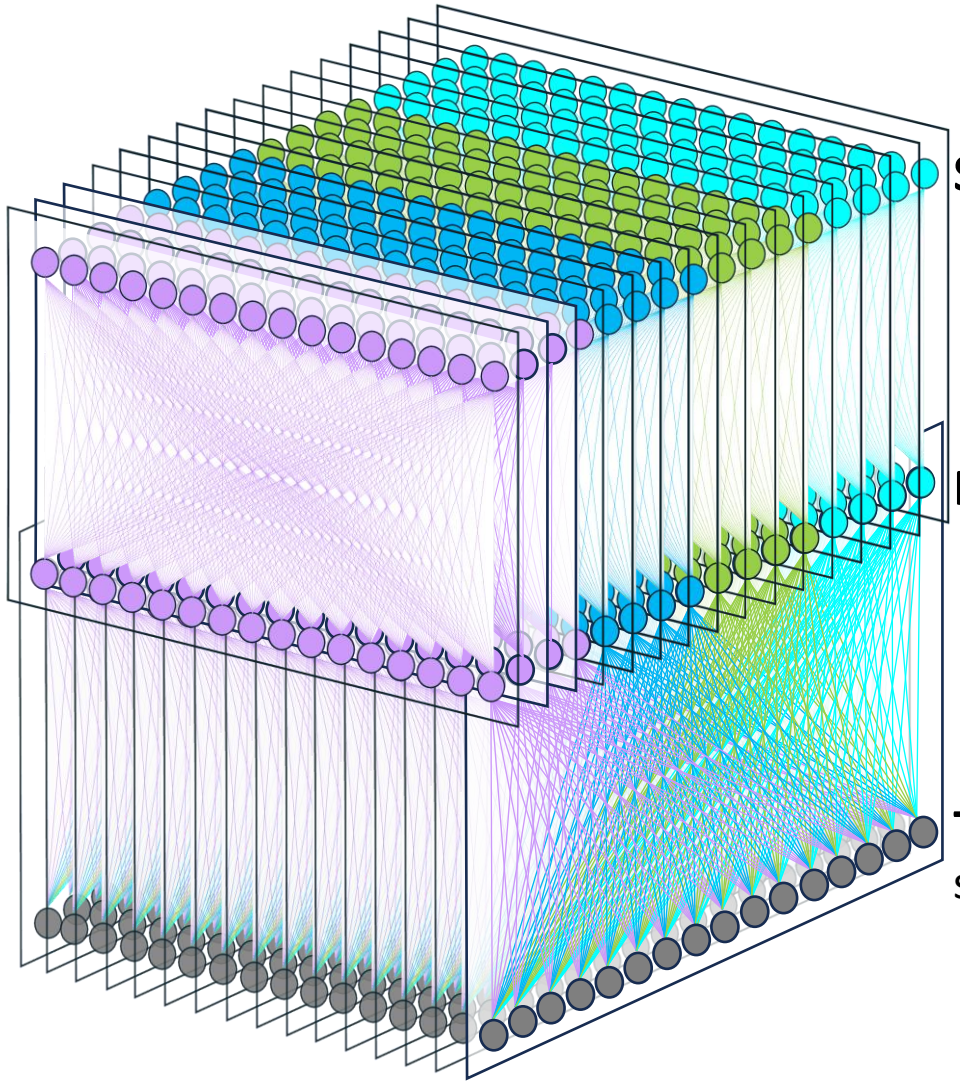
Two-layer leaf/spline datacenter interconnection network:



# Datacenter networks: network elements

Facebook F16 data center network topology:

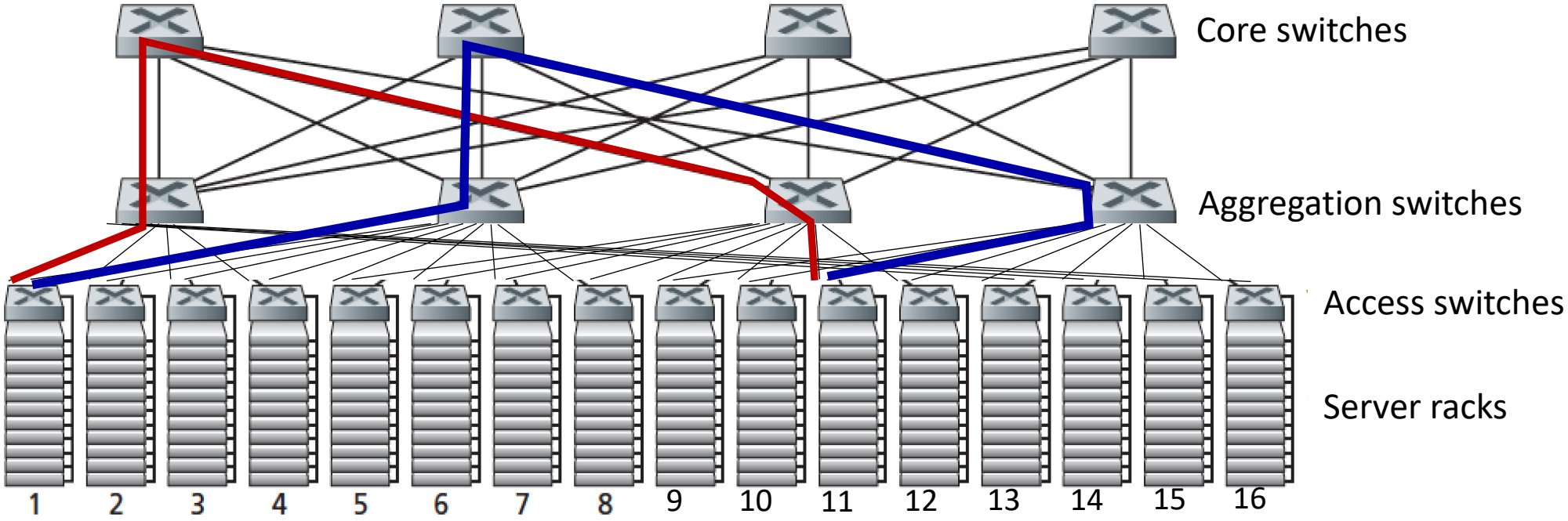
- each Top-of-Rack (ToR) switch connects to 16 Fabric switches
- each Fabric switch connects to 16 Spine switches




Adapted from https://engineering.fb.com/data-center-engineering/f16-minipack

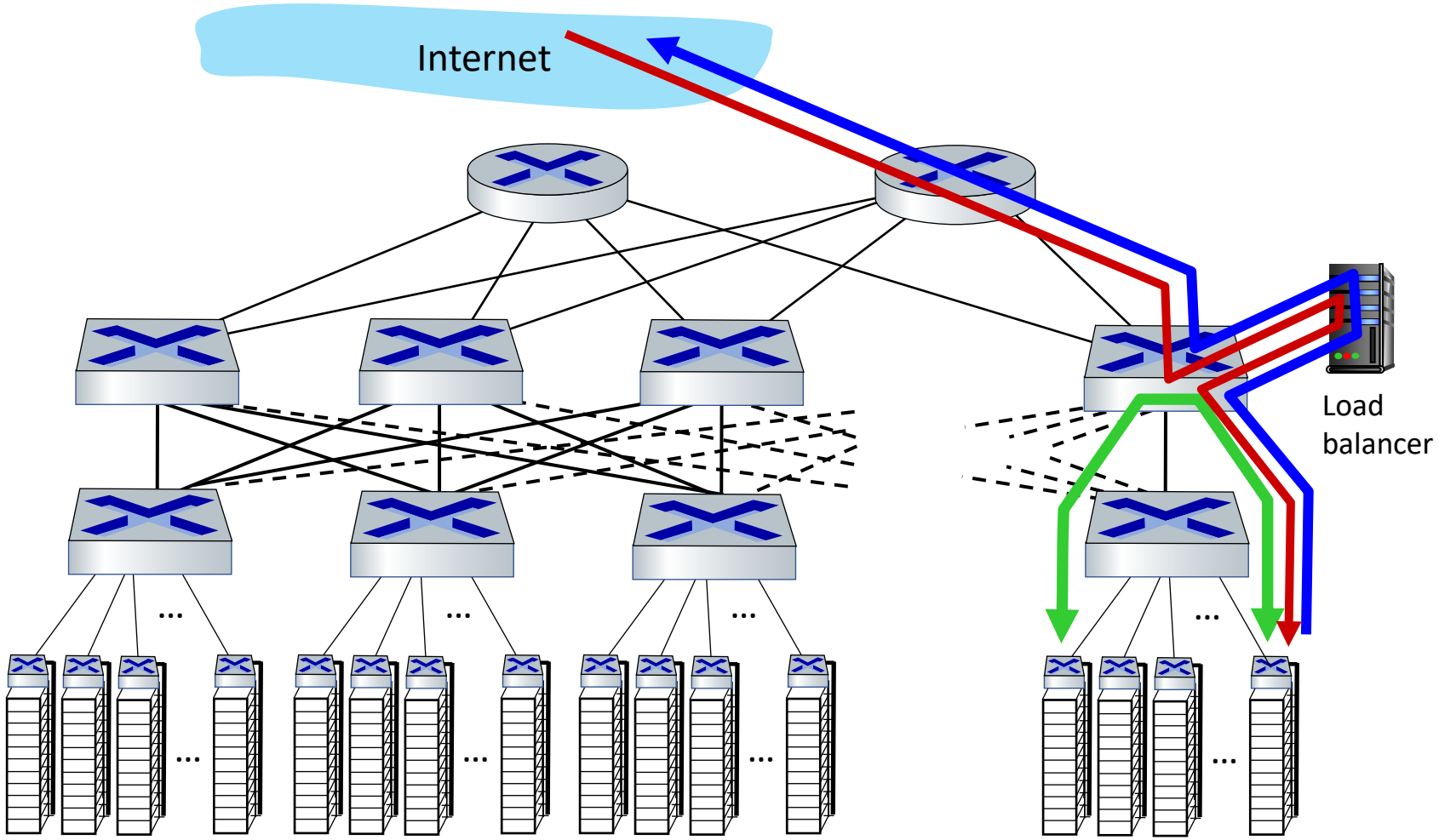
# Datacenter networks: multipath

- rich interconnection among switches, racks:
  - increased throughput between racks (multiple routing paths possible)
  - increased reliability via redundancy




two disjoint paths highlighted between racks 1 and 11

# Datacenter networks: application-layer routing




load balancer: application-layer routing

- receives external client requests
- directs workload within data center
- returns results to external client (hiding data center internals from client)

# Datacenter networks: protocol innovations

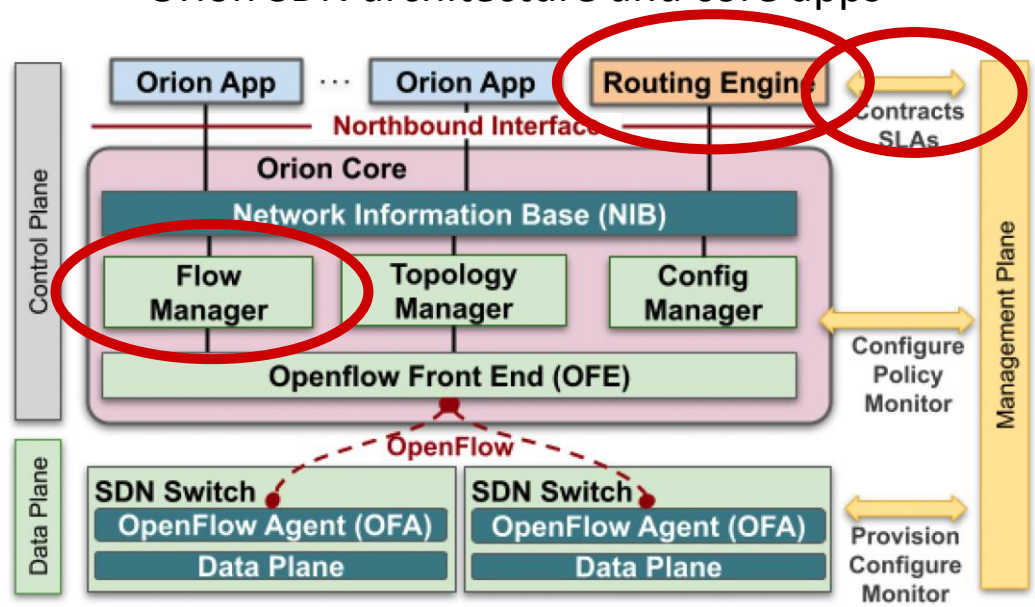
- link layer:
  - RoCE: remote DMA (RDMA) over Converged Ethernet
- transport layer:
  - ECN (explicit congestion notification) used in transport-layer congestion control (DCTCP, DCQCN)
  - experimentation with hop-by-hop (backpressure) congestion control
- routing, management:
  - SDN widely used within/among organizations' datacenters
  - place related services, data as close as possible (e.g., in same rack or nearby rack) to minimize tier-2, tier-1 communication

Google Networking: Infrastructure and Selected Challenges (Slides: https://networkingchannel.eu/google-networking-infrastructure-and-selected-challenges/

# ORION: Google's new SDN control plane for internal datacenter (Jupiter) + wide area (B4) network

- routing (intradomain, iBGP), traffic engineering: implemented in *applications* on top of ORION core
- edge-edge flow-based controls (e.g., CoFlow scheduling) to meet contract SLAs
- management: pub-sub distributed microservices in Orion core, OpenFlow for switch signaling/monitoring

Orion SDN architecture and core apps




Note:

- no routing protocols, congestion control (partially) also managed by SDN rather than by protocol
- are protocols dying?



**SPEAKER NOTES**

Repeat after each reveal: no protocol

Coflows: "a collection of flows between two groups of machines with associated semantics and a collective objective"; [Sigcomm'13, Sigcomm'15, Sigcomm'18]. Not unlike multiprocessor scheduling in the 1980's

# Link layer, LANs: roadmap

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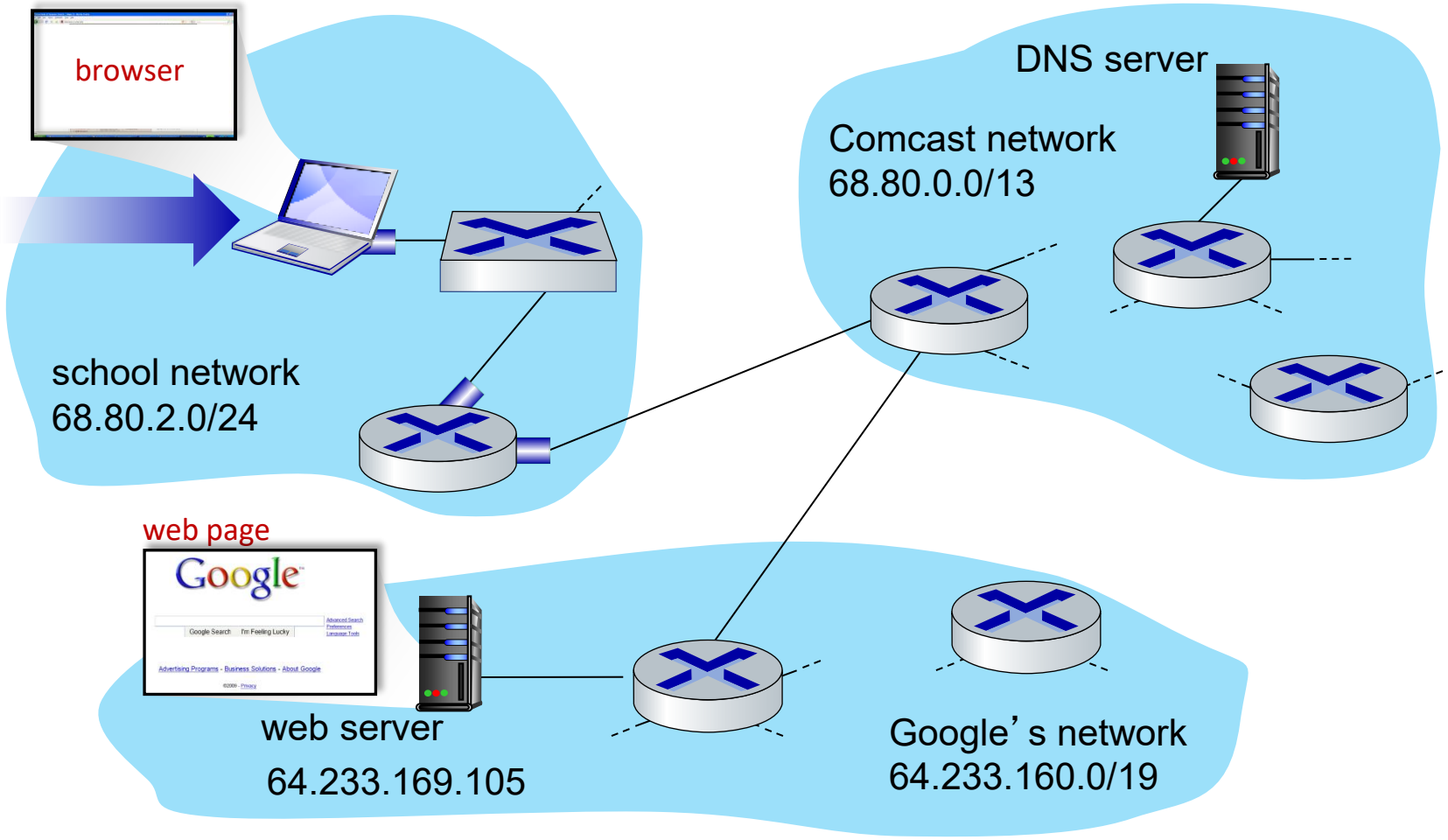
- a day in the life of a web request

# Synthesis: a day in the life of a web request

- our journey down the protocol stack is now complete!
  - application, transport, network, link
- putting-it-all-together: synthesis!
  - *goal:* identify, review, understand protocols (at all layers) involved in seemingly simple scenario: requesting www page
  - *scenario:* student attaches laptop to campus network, requests/receives www.google.com

# A day in the life: scenario

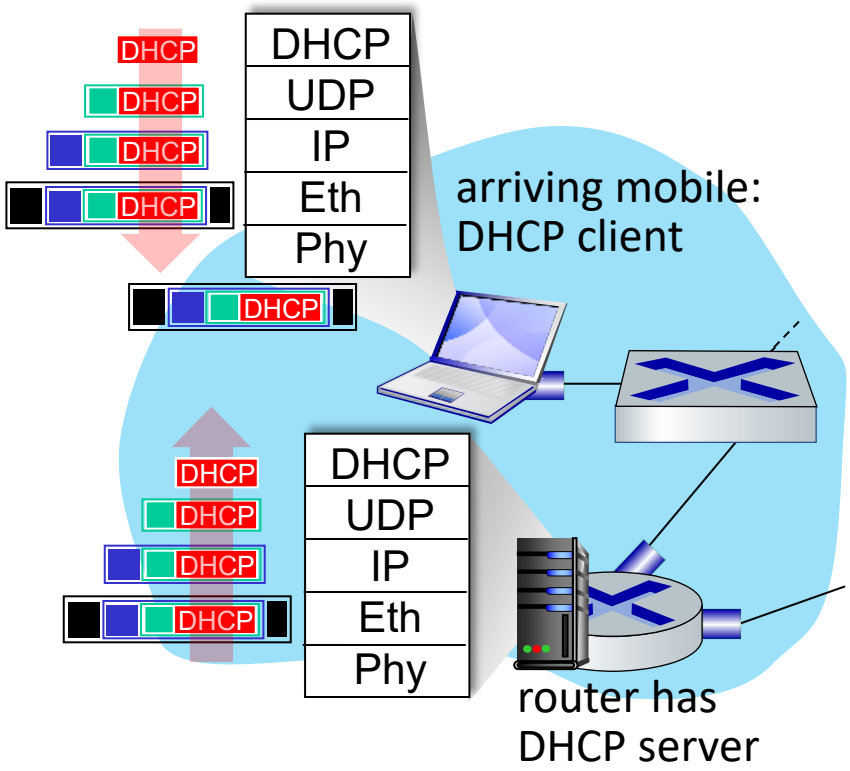



scenario:

- arriving mobile client attaches to network …
- requests web page: www.google.com

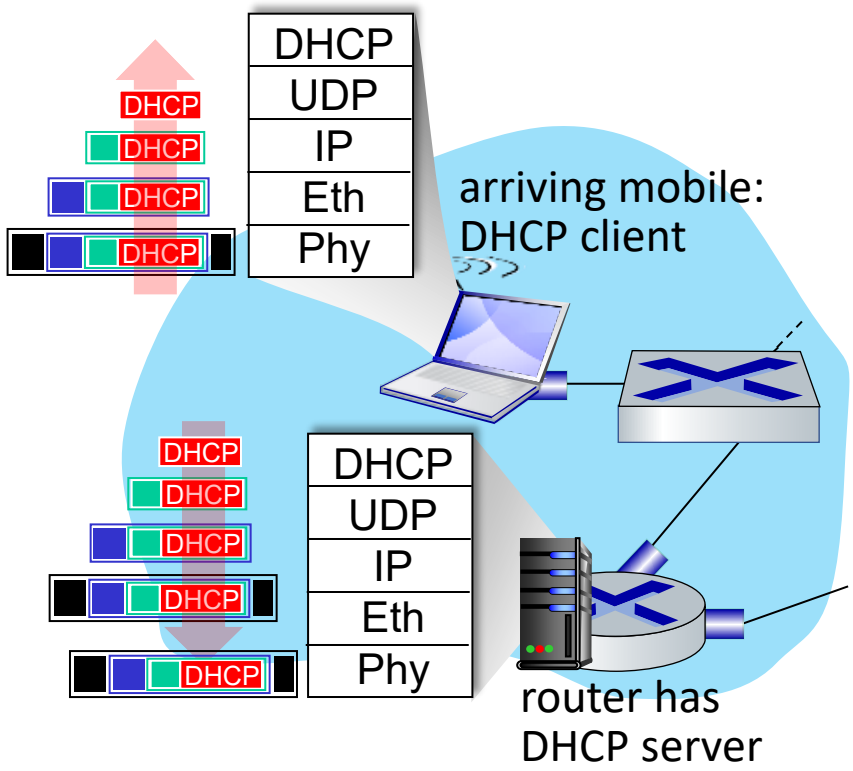
*Sounds simple!*

# A day in the life: connecting to the Internet




- connecting laptop needs to get its own IP address, addr of first-hop router, addr of DNS server: use DHCP
- DHCP request encapsulated in UDP, encapsulated in IP, encapsulated in 802.3 Ethernet
- Ethernet frame broadcast (dest: FFFFFFFFFFFF) on LAN, received at router running DHCP server
- Ethernet de-muxed to IP de-muxed, UDP de-muxed to DHCP

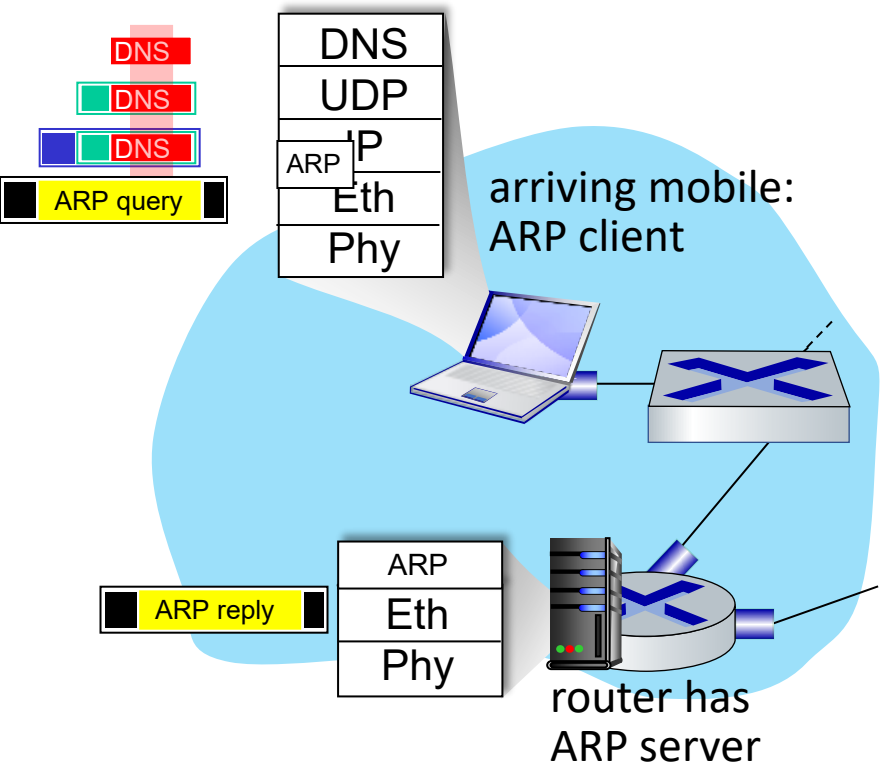
# A day in the life: connecting to the Internet




- DHCP server formulates DHCP ACK containing client's IP address, IP address of first-hop router for client, name & IP address of DNS server
- encapsulation at DHCP server, frame forwarded (switch learning) through LAN, demultiplexing at client
- DHCP client receives DHCP ACK reply

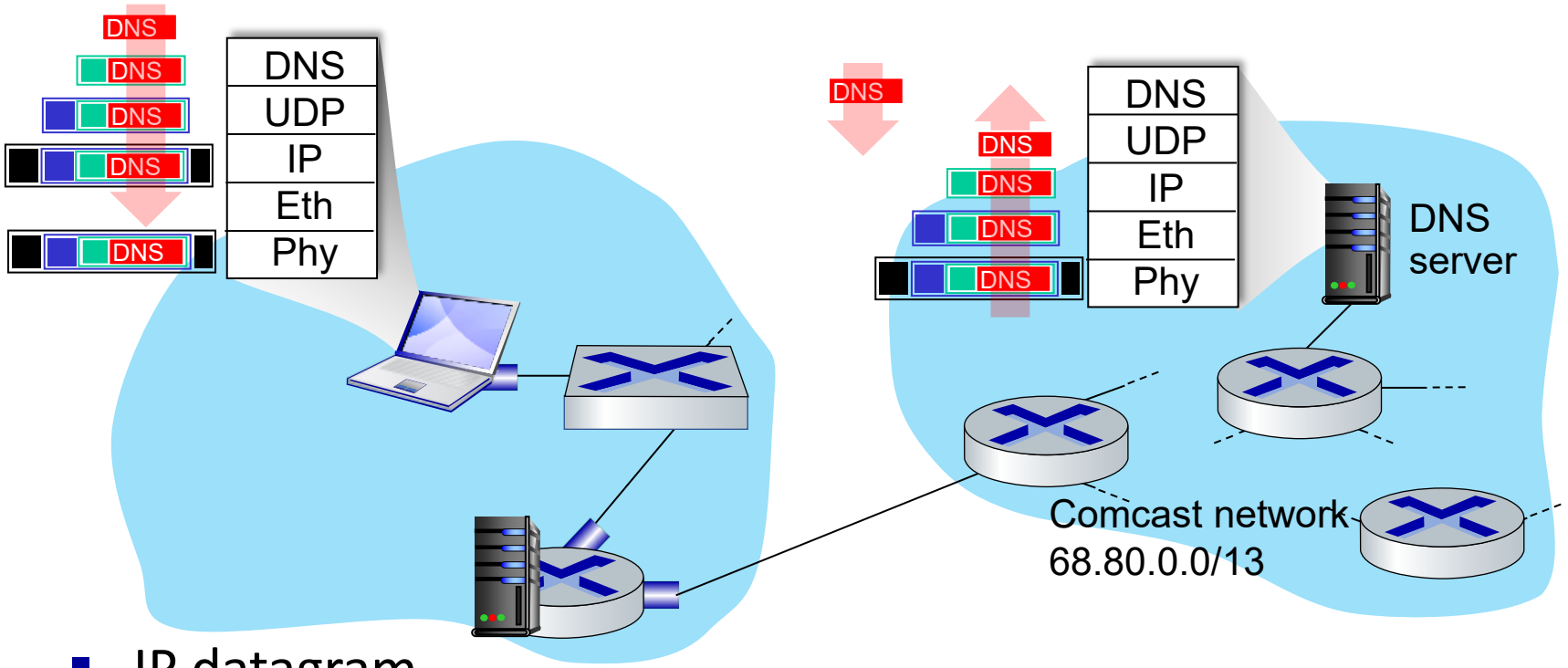
*Client now has IP address, knows name & addr of DNS server, IP address of its first-hop router*

# A day in the life… ARP (before DNS, before HTTP)




- before sending HTTP request, need IP address of www.google.com: DNS
- DNS query created, encapsulated in UDP, encapsulated in IP, encapsulated in Eth. To send frame to router, need MAC address of router interface: ARP
- ARP query broadcast, received by router, which replies with ARP reply giving MAC address of router interface
- client now knows MAC address of first hop router, so can now send frame containing DNS query

# A day in the life… using DNS

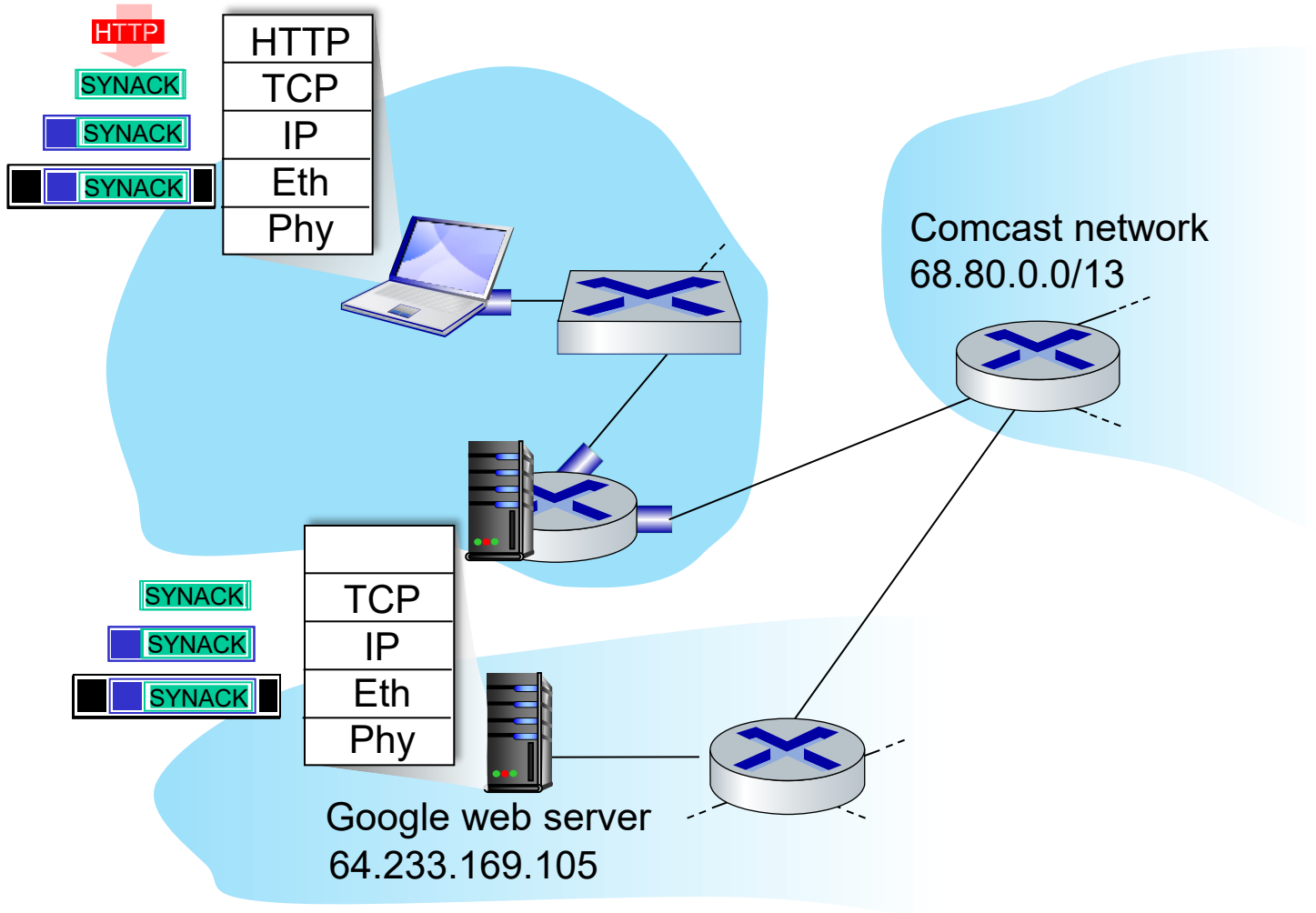



- de-muxed to DNS
- DNS replies to client with IP address of www.google.com

- IP datagram containing DNS query forwarded via LAN switch from client to 1st hop router

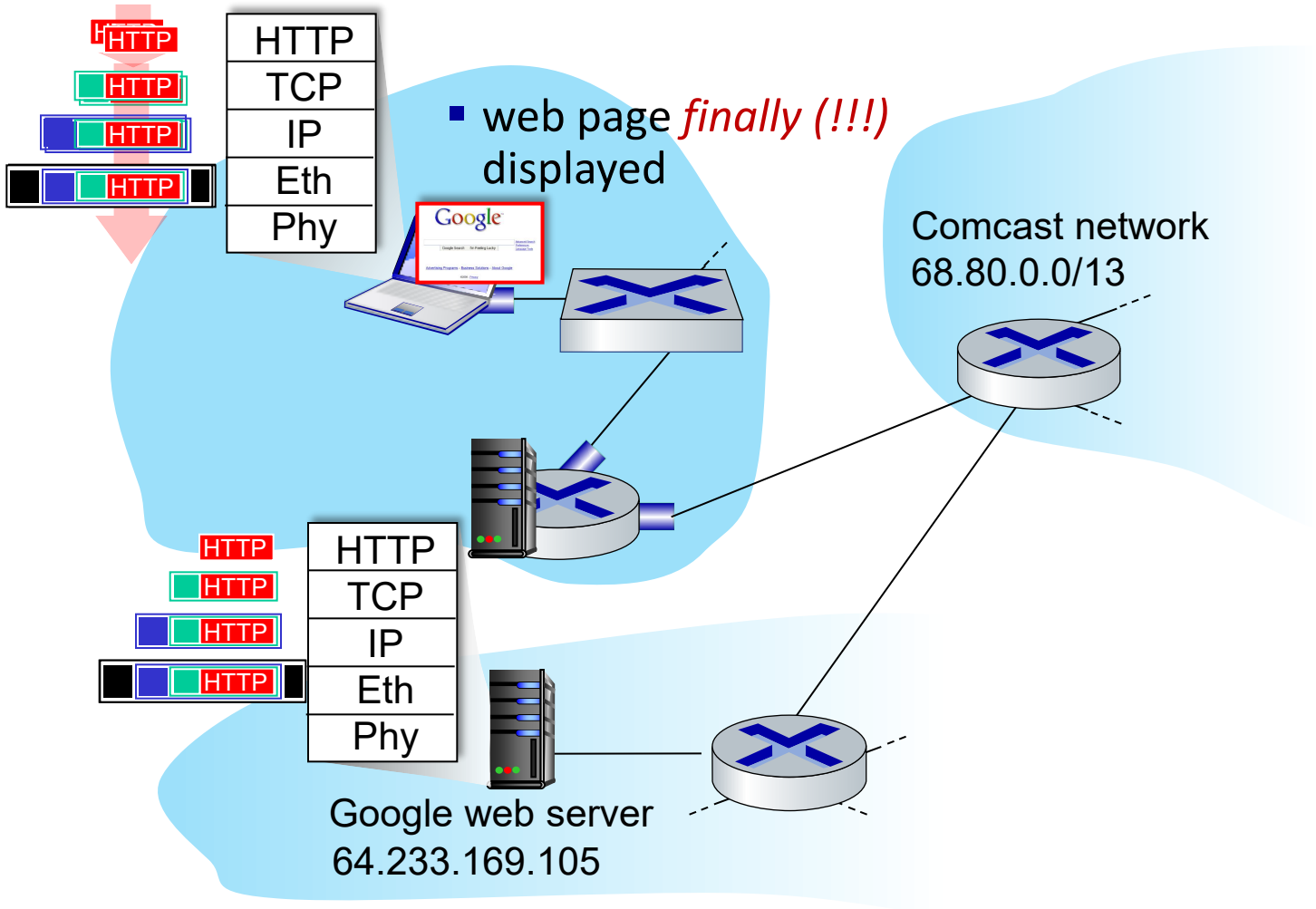
- IP datagram forwarded from campus network into Comcast network, routed (tables created by RIP, OSPF, IS-IS and/or BGP routing protocols) to DNS server

# A day in the life…TCP connection carrying HTTP




- to send HTTP request, client first opens TCP socket to web server
- TCP SYN segment (step 1 in TCP 3-way handshake) inter-domain routed to web server
- web server responds with TCP SYNACK (step 2 in TCP 3-way handshake)
- TCP connection established!

# A day in the life… HTTP request/reply




- HTTP request sent into TCP socket
- IP datagram containing HTTP request routed to www.google.com
- web server responds with HTTP reply (containing web page)
- IP datagram containing HTTP reply routed back to client

# Chapter 6: Summary

- principles behind data link layer services:
  - error detection, correction
  - sharing a broadcast channel: multiple access
  - link layer addressing
- instantiation, implementation of various link layer technologies
  - Ethernet
  - switched LANS, VLANs
  - virtualized networks as a link layer: MPLS
- synthesis: a day in the life of a web request

# Chapter 6: let's take a breath

- journey down protocol stack *complete* (except PHY)
- solid understanding of networking principles, practice!
- ….. could stop here …. but *more* interesting topics!
  - wireless
  - security

# Additional Chapter 6 slides

# Pure ALOHA efficiency

P(success by given node) = P(node transmits) *

P(no other node transmits in $[t_0\text{-}1,t_0]$ * *

P(no other node transmits in $[t_0\text{-}1,t_0]$

$= p \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{N-1} \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{N-1}$

$= p \cdot (1\text{-}p)^{2(N-1)}$

… choosing optimum p and then letting *n*

$= 1/(2e) = .18 \rightarrow \infty$

even worse than slotted Aloha!